

# Labour Supply 1: Individual Attachment to the Labour Market

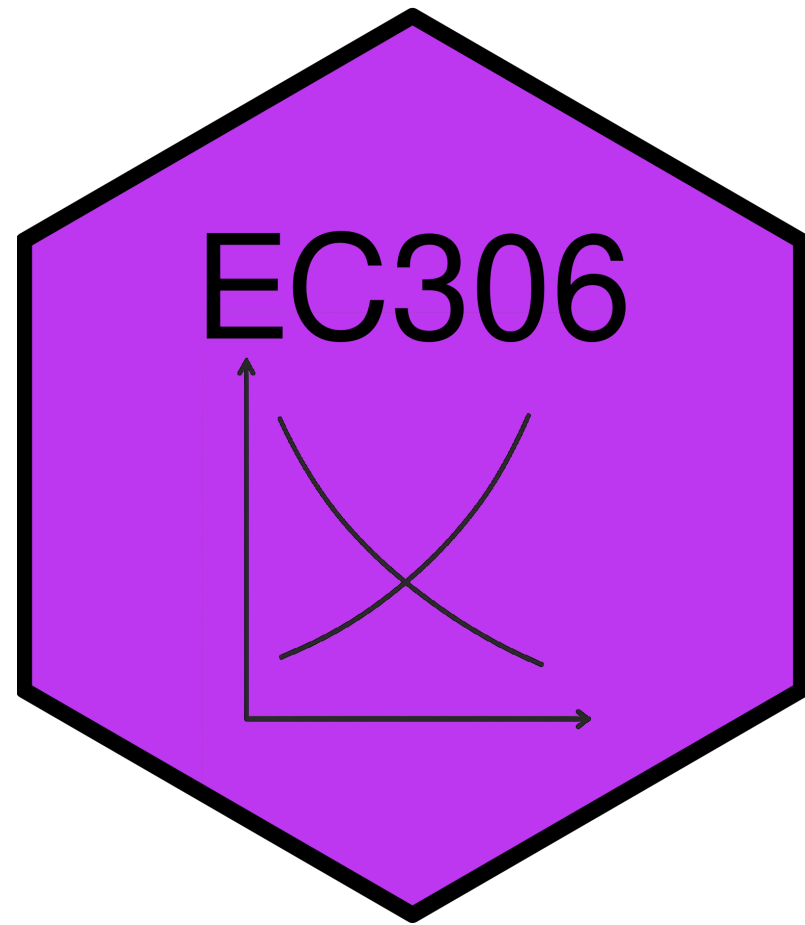
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EC306- Wages and Employment

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# Goals of This Section

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- Introduce common labour market concepts
- Build the labour supply model
- Derive labour supply curve
- Examine effects of labour market policies within that model

# Key Labour Force Concepts

# Introduction

- The labour market involves several individual decisions about work
  - It is not simply whether to work or not
- In the news you hear about statistics that quantify these decisions
- In this section we cover the most common ones

# Labour Force Participation

- The first decision is whether to make yourself *available* for work
- **Labour Force:** people in the eligible population who participate in labour market activities as either employed or unemployed
  - A measure of the people that could work or are working
- Eligible population includes
  - Population 15 years and over
  - Non-institutionalized
  - People not living on reserve
  - Civilians (non-military)

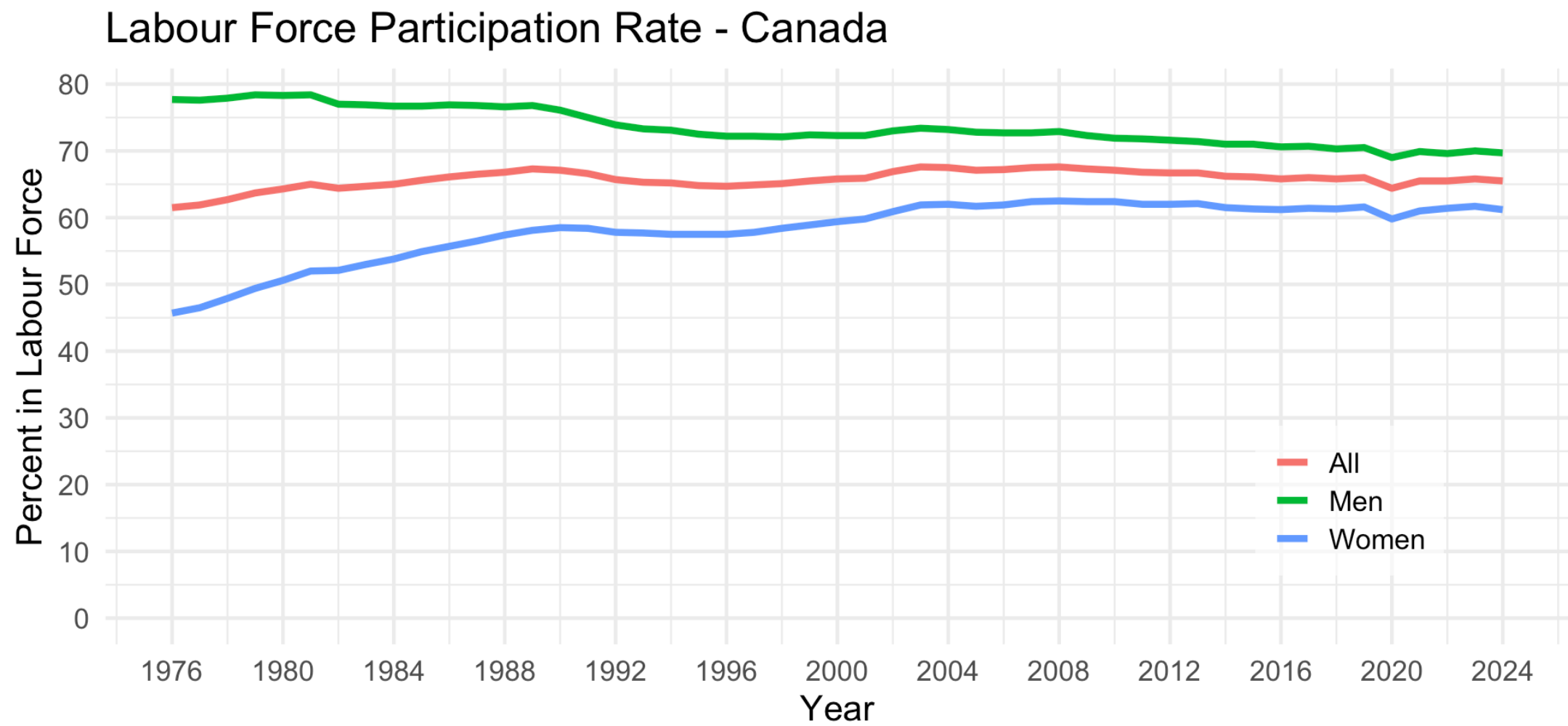
# Labour Force Participation

- Eligible people who are not part of the labour force include
  - Retired people
  - People who do only unpaid work in the home
  - Full time students (who are 15 years old and over)
  - People who just give up on looking for work
- **Labour Force Participation Rate (LFPR):** The share of the eligible population (POP) in the labour force (LF)

$$LFPR = LF/POP$$

- The LFPR is a common statistic reported in the news

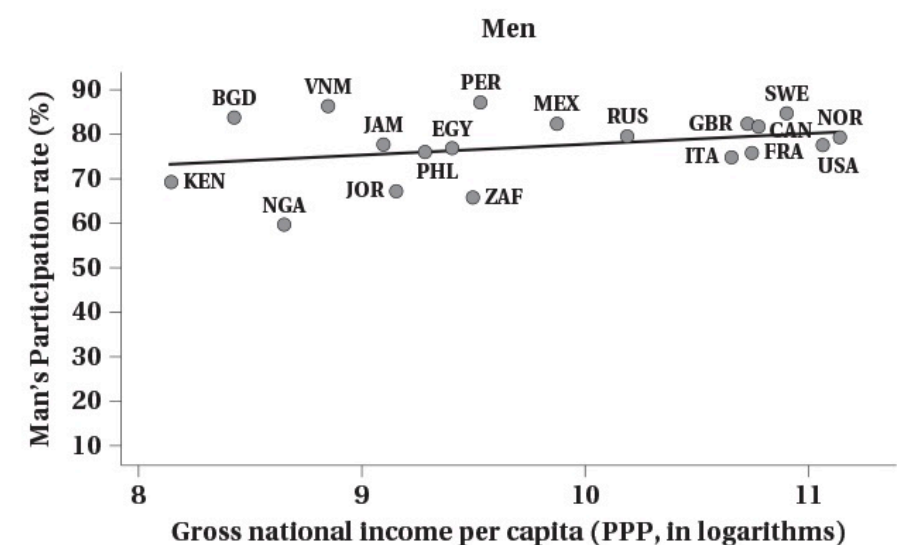
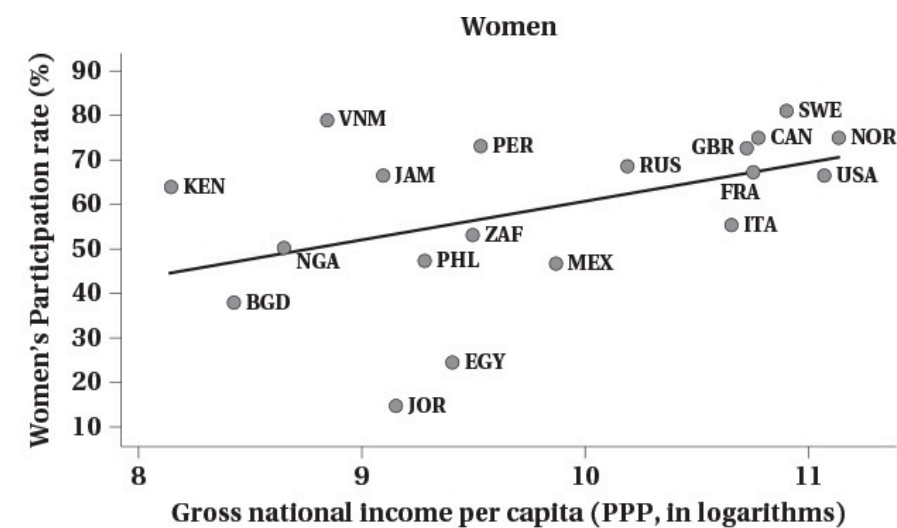
# Labour Force Participation



Source: CANSIM Table 14-01-0327-02



# Labour Force Participation



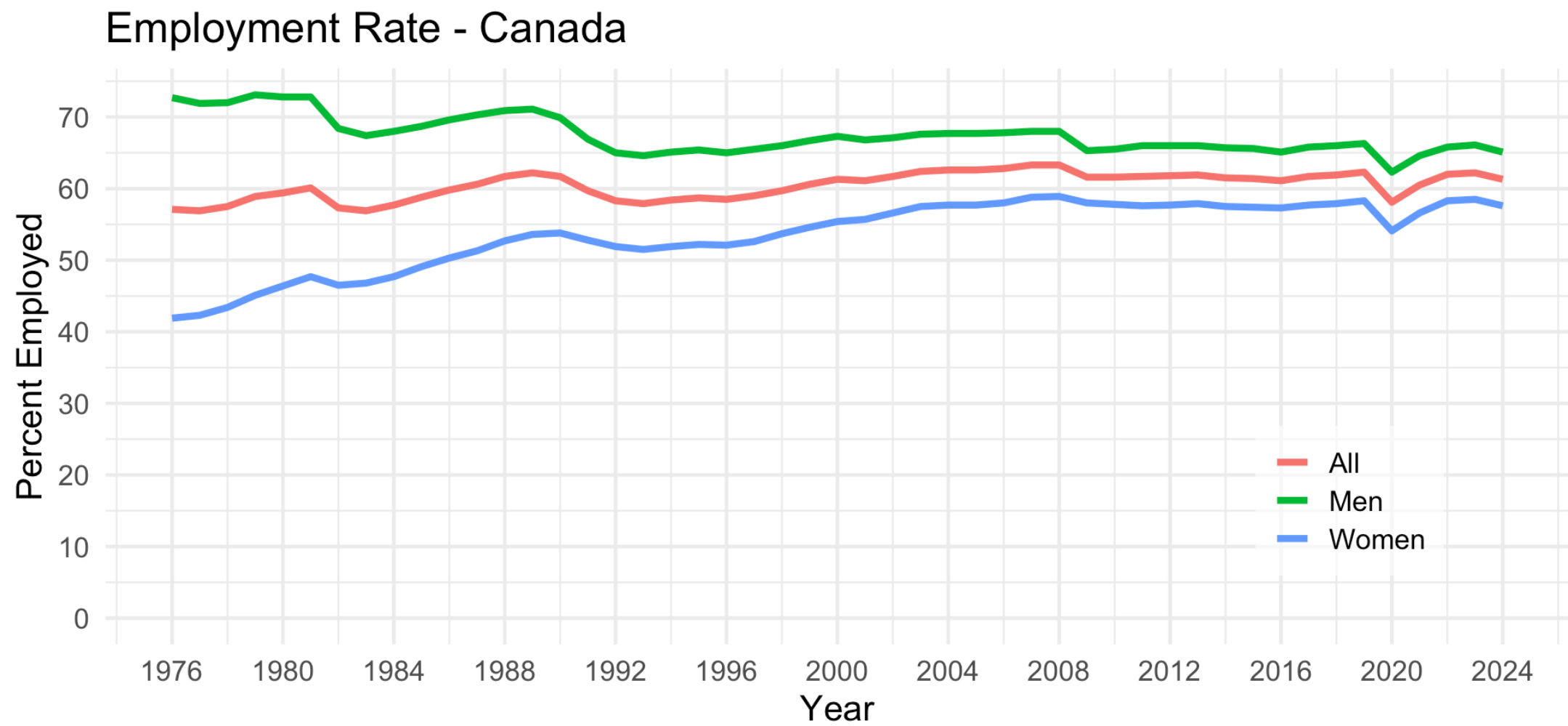
# Employment and Unemployment

- People in the labour force are either employed or unemployed
- **Employed (E)**: people who worked during the reference period
  - Includes people normally employed but temporarily absent
- **Unemployed (U)**: people who did not work during the reference period but
  - were available for work and actively looked for work in the past four weeks
  - were waiting to start a new job within the next four weeks
  - on temporary layoff and expecting to be recalled to that job
- The employment rate (ER) and unemployment rate (UR) are

$$ER = E/POP$$

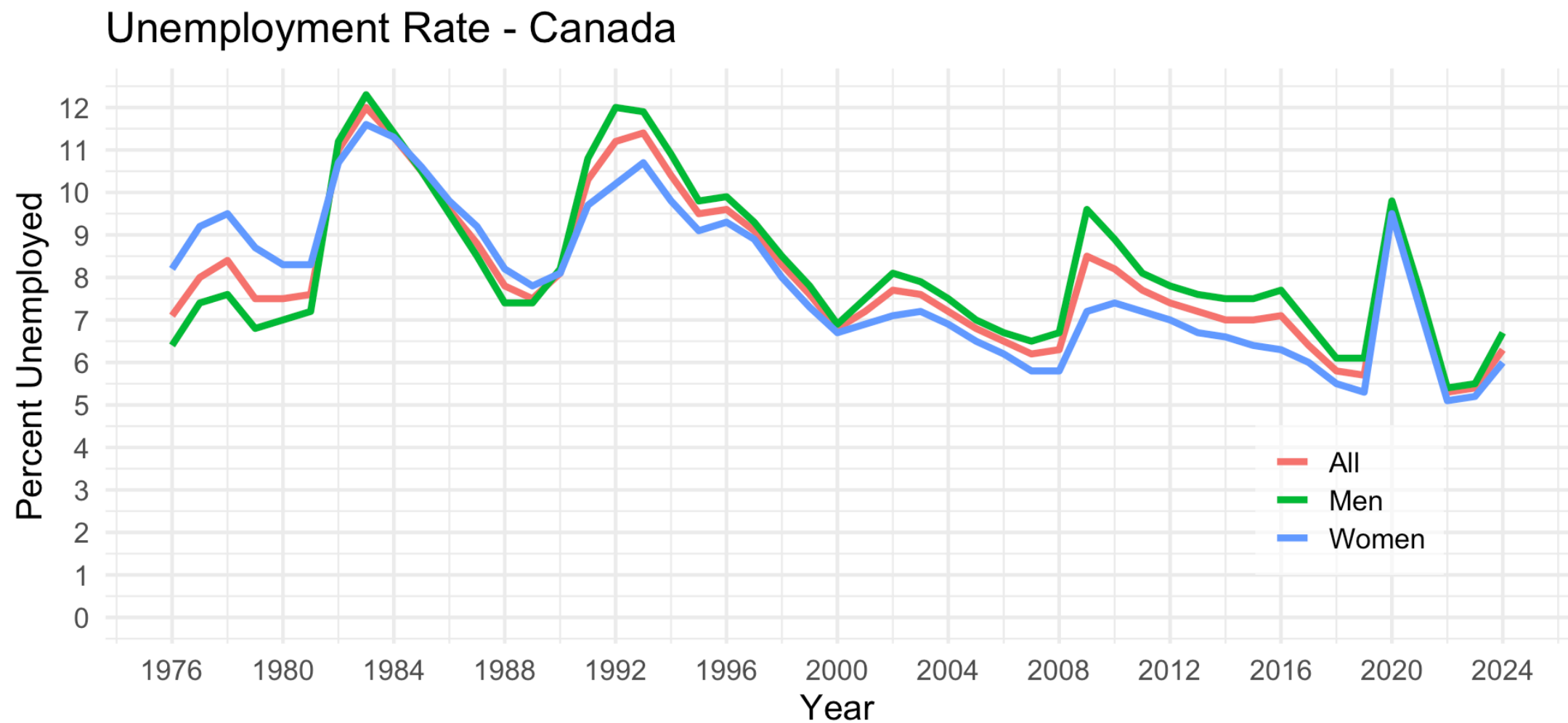
$$UR = U/LF$$

# Employment and Unemployment



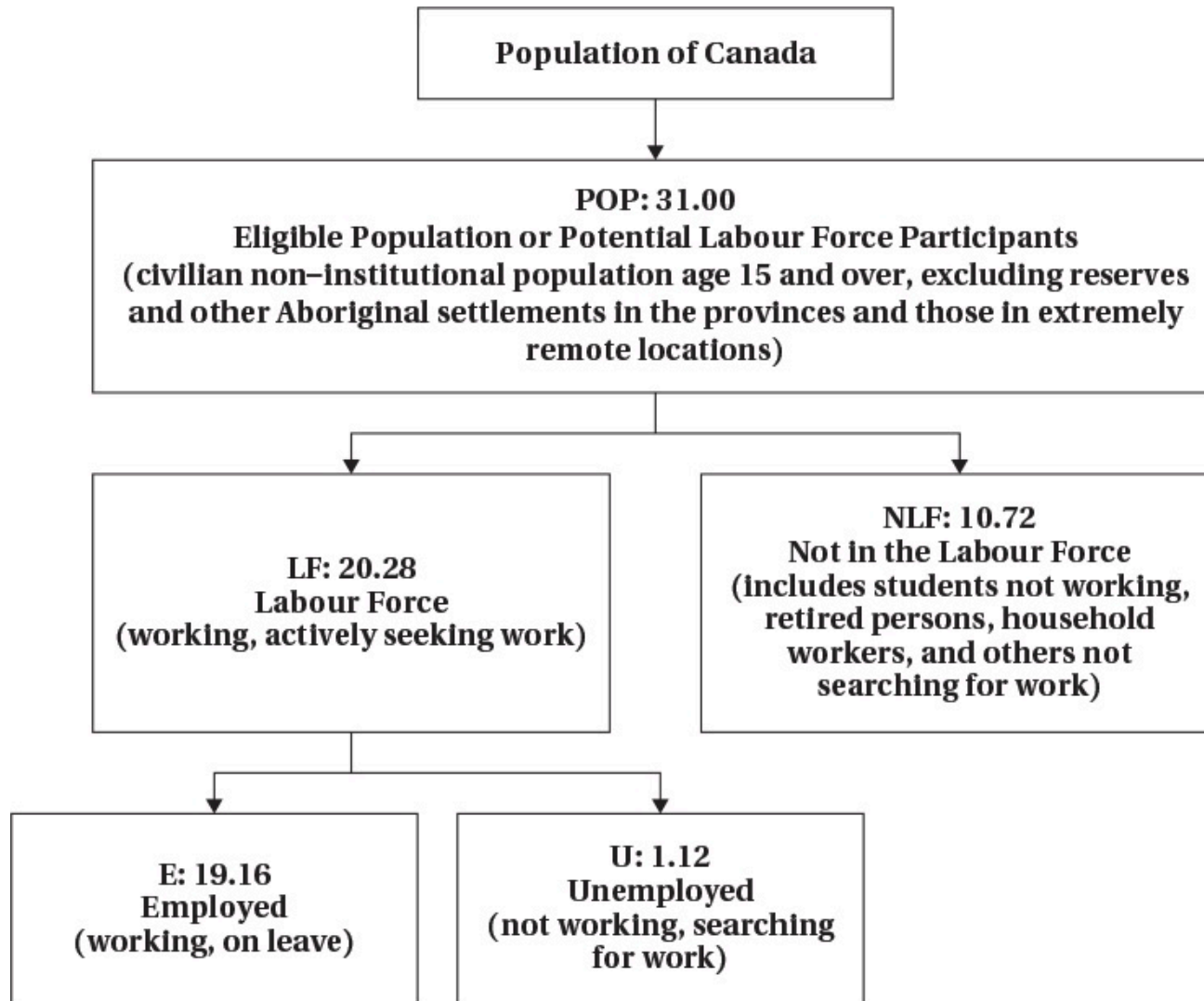
Source: CANSIM Table 14-01-0327-02

# Employment and Unemployment



Source: CANSIM Table 14-01-0327-02

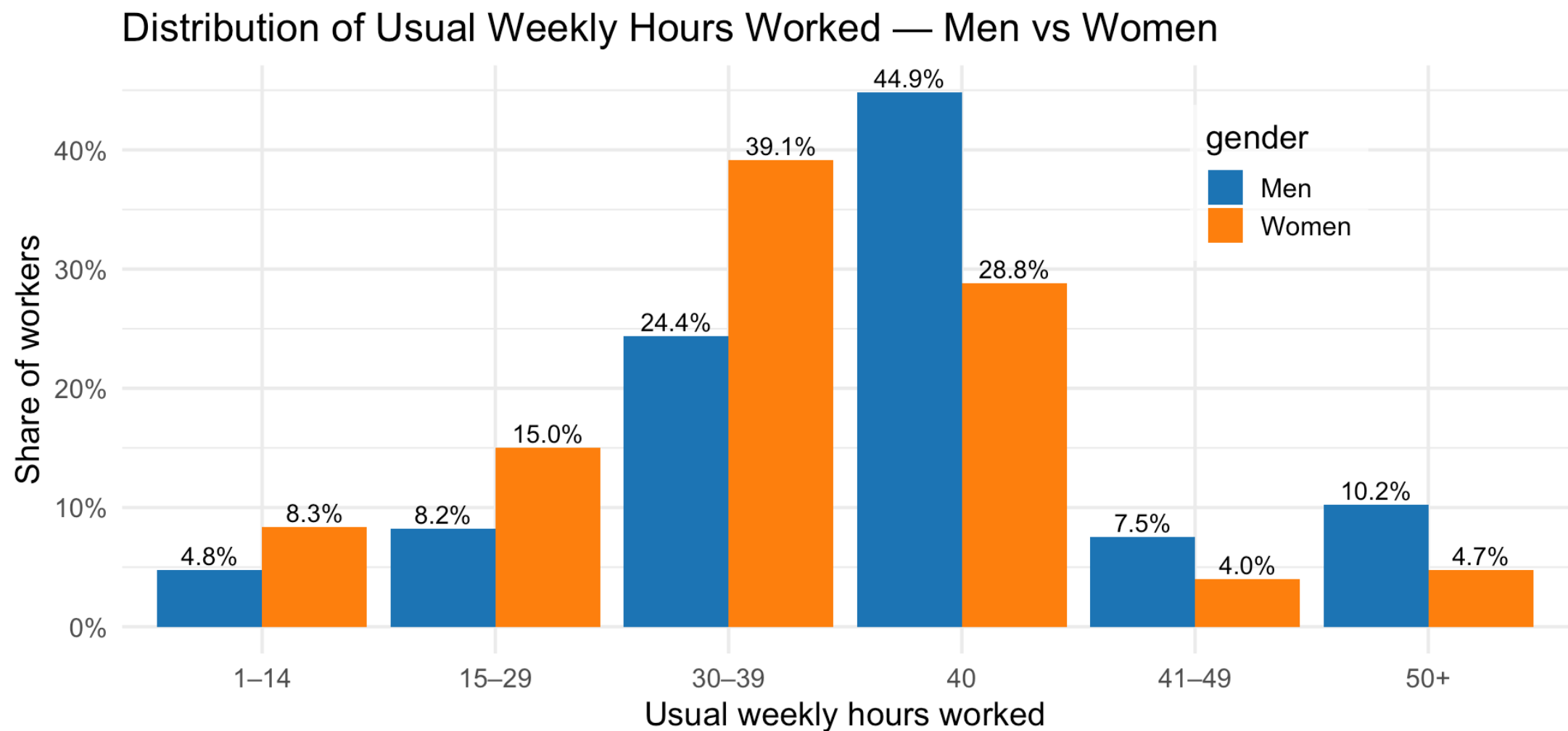
# Labour Force Hierarchy



# Hours Worked

- Individuals decide not only whether to work or not, but how intensively
- Some people work full time, some work part time
  - Work arrangements can be flexible
  - “Gig” jobs and remote work have increased that flexibility
- Recent data show
  - Almost half of men work full time hours
  - About 1/4 of women work full time hours

# Hours Worked



Source: Labour Force Survey April 2025

# Labour Supply Model



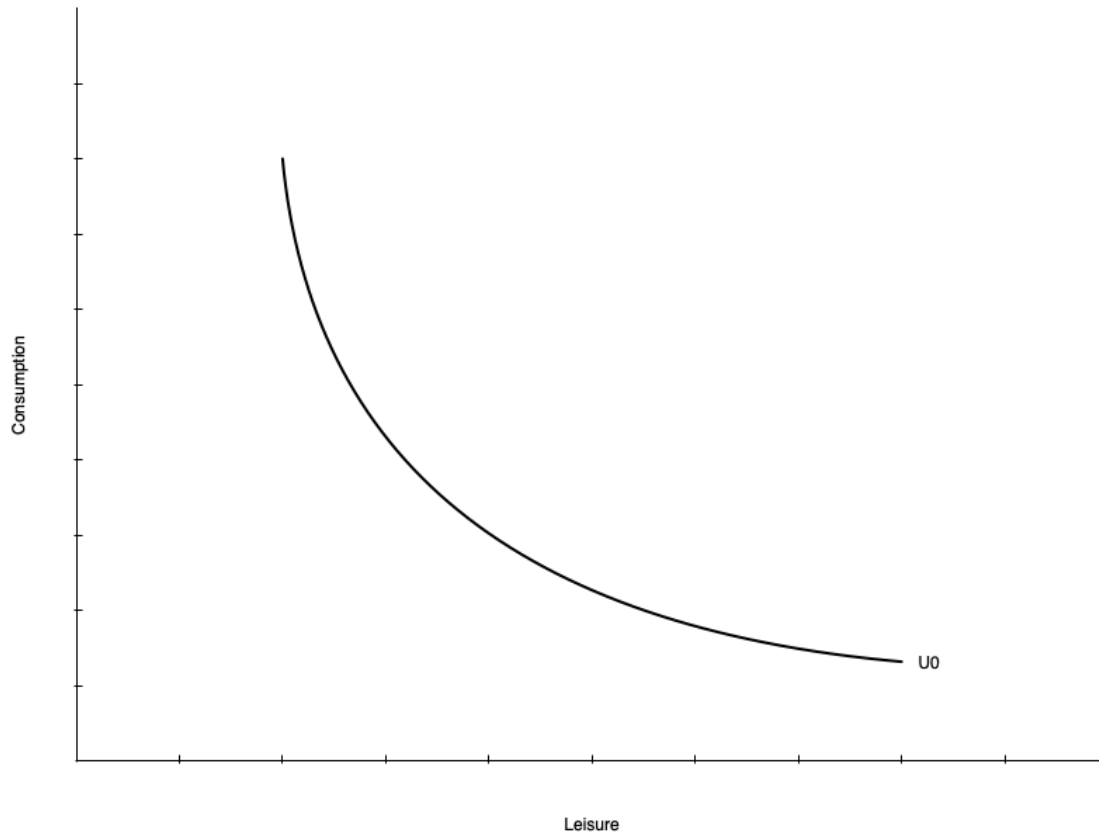
# Introduction

- In this section we introduce a model we use throughout the course
- The model helps us understand how individuals make decisions about work
- Based on utility maximization as you saw in EC270
- Individual choose between two goods
  - Consumption of goods and services
  - Leisure
- Choices are constrained by time, wage rate, and non-labour income
- There are a few wrinkles that make this market unique

# Preferences

- Individuals have preferences over consumption (C) and leisure (L)
  - People like consuming goods and services
  - Also like having non-work time
    - Includes fun activities but also non-work tasks like chores, education, etc.
- The tradeoffs people are willing to make between C and L are represented by indifference curves
  - At every point along the curve the individual is equally happy
  - Curves further from the origin represent higher levels of utility

# Preferences

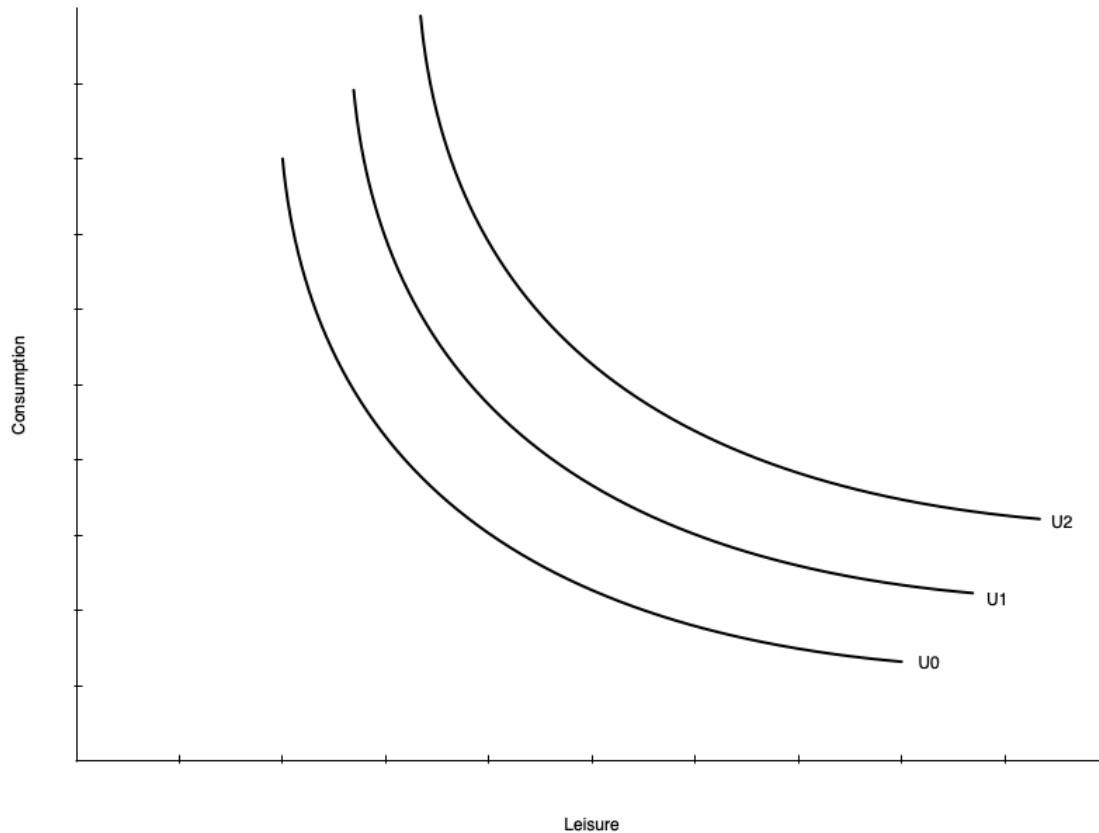


- On the left is a single indifference curve
- Any point represents equal utility ( $U_0$ )
- **Marginal Rate of Substitution (MRS):** the rate at which a person is willing to trade consumption for leisure while remaining equally happy
- The MRS is the slope of the indifference curve at a point
- Individuals have diminishing MRS
  - Willing to give up less consumption for additional leisure the more leisure they already have
  - Slope gets shallower with more leisure

# Preferences

- Indifference curves do not have to be smooth curves like the one shown
- Could be straight lines
  - Means the tradeoff between consumption and leisure is constant
  - Willingness to trade away leisure for consumption does not depend on leisure
- Could be “L” shaped
  - Consumption and leisure must be consumed in fixed proportions
- Mostly we will deal with smooth preferences

# Preferences

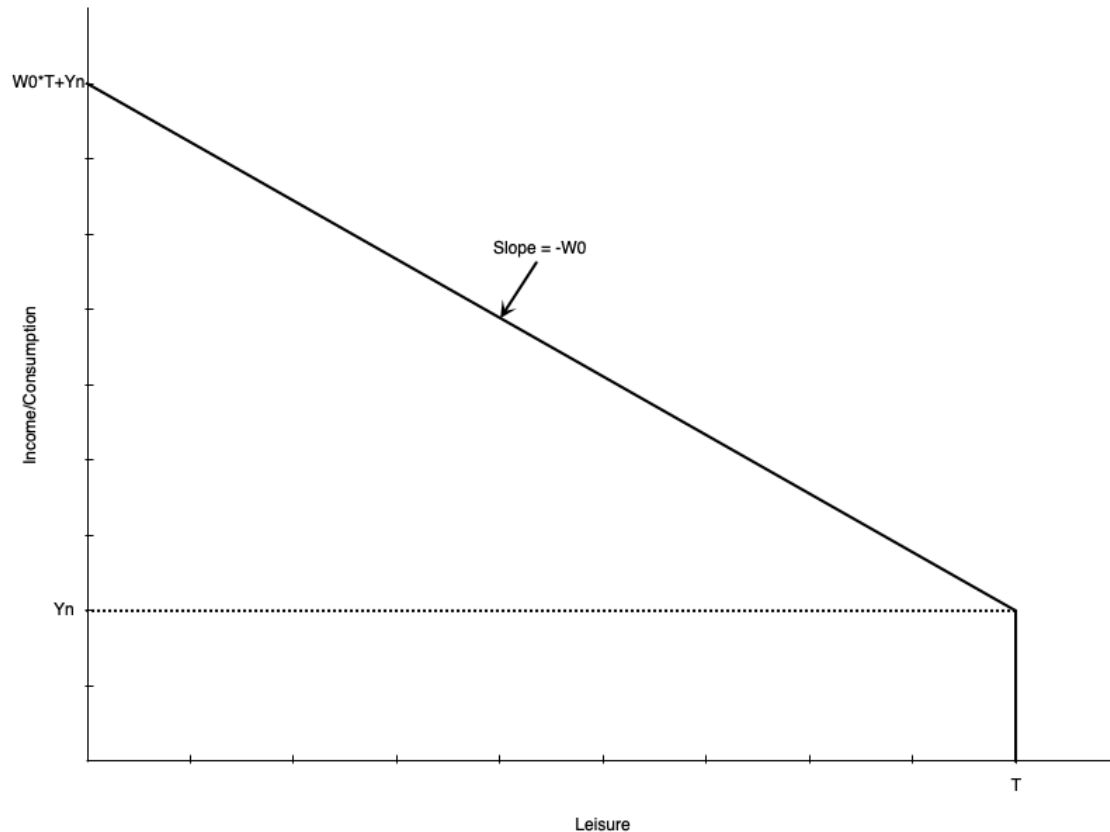


- Utility increases with curves further from the origin
  - $U_2 > U_1 > U_0$

# Constraints

- Individuals do not choose consumption and leisure bundles on preference alone
- They are constrained by their budget
- The budget is determined by
  - The wage rate
  - Total number of hours available
  - Non-labour income
- Budget constraint is also called
  - Potential income constraint
  - Full income constraint

# Constraints



- Graph shows a linear budget constraint
- Assume no saving, so consumption = income
- There are  $T$  total hours to allocate to work or leisure
- Individual earns  $Y_n$  non-labour income
  - Earned even with zero work hours (full leisure hours)
- Each hour worked gets wage of  $w$
- Person working  $T$  hours (no leisure) earns  $WT + Y_n$  income
  - Called “full income”

# Constraints

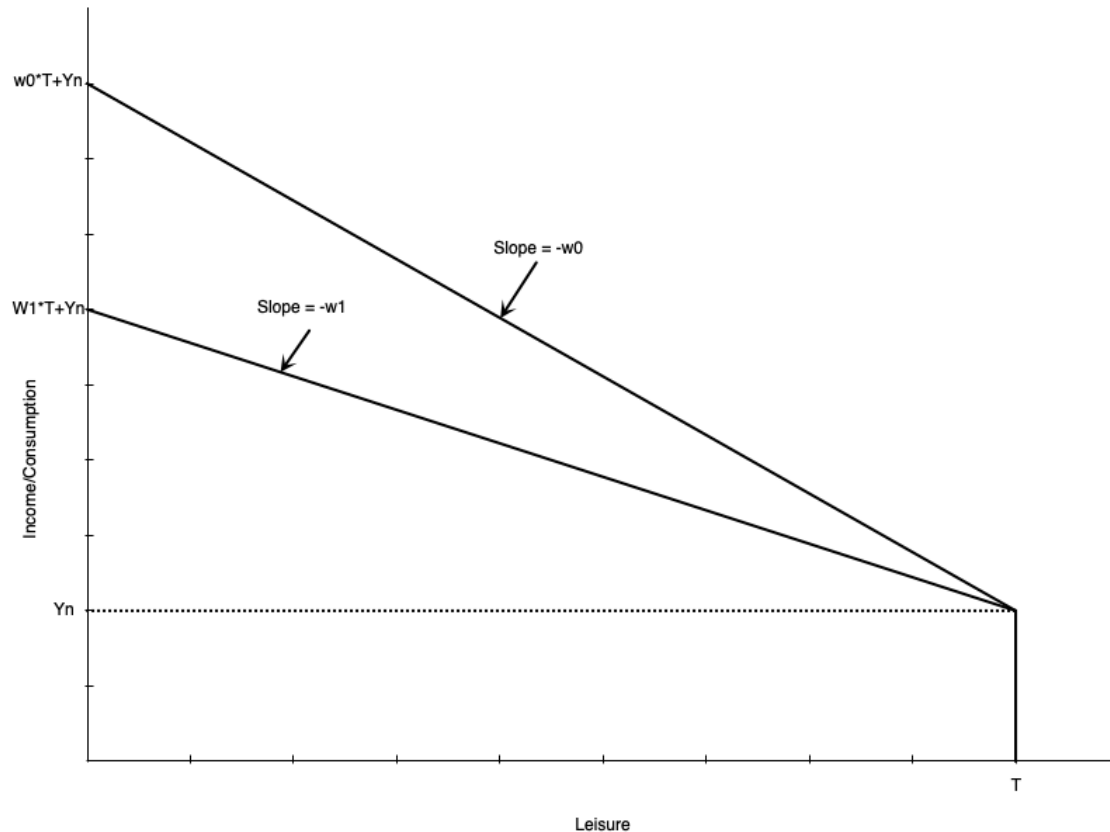
- Mathematically, the budget constraint is

$$C = w(T - L) + Y_n$$

- Consumption is equal to income from working ( $w(T - L)$ ) plus non-labour income ( $Y_n$ )
- The slope of the budget constraint is  $-w$ 
  - The opportunity cost of leisure is the wage rate
  - Each hour of leisure means one less hour worked, which means  $w$  less income
- Someone who works zero hours has  $T$  leisure hours and  $Y_n$  consumption
- Someone who works  $T$  hours has zero leisure hours and  $wT + Y_n$  consumption

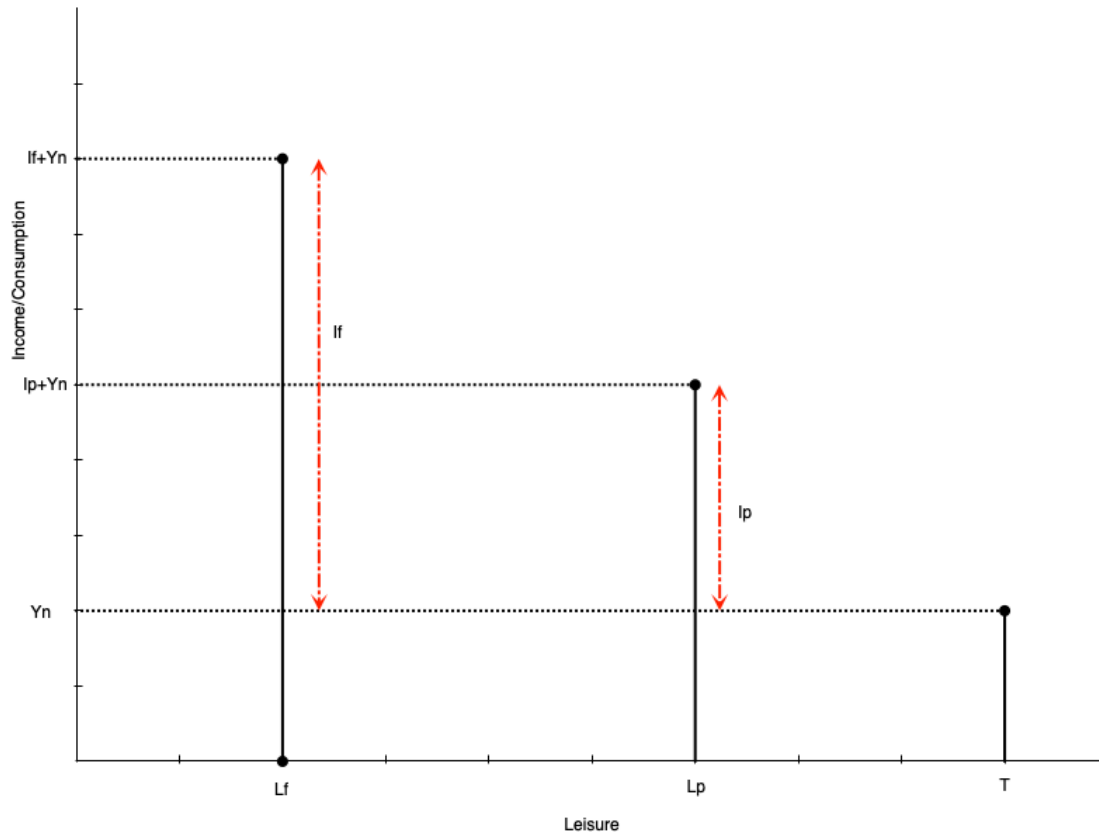


# Constraints



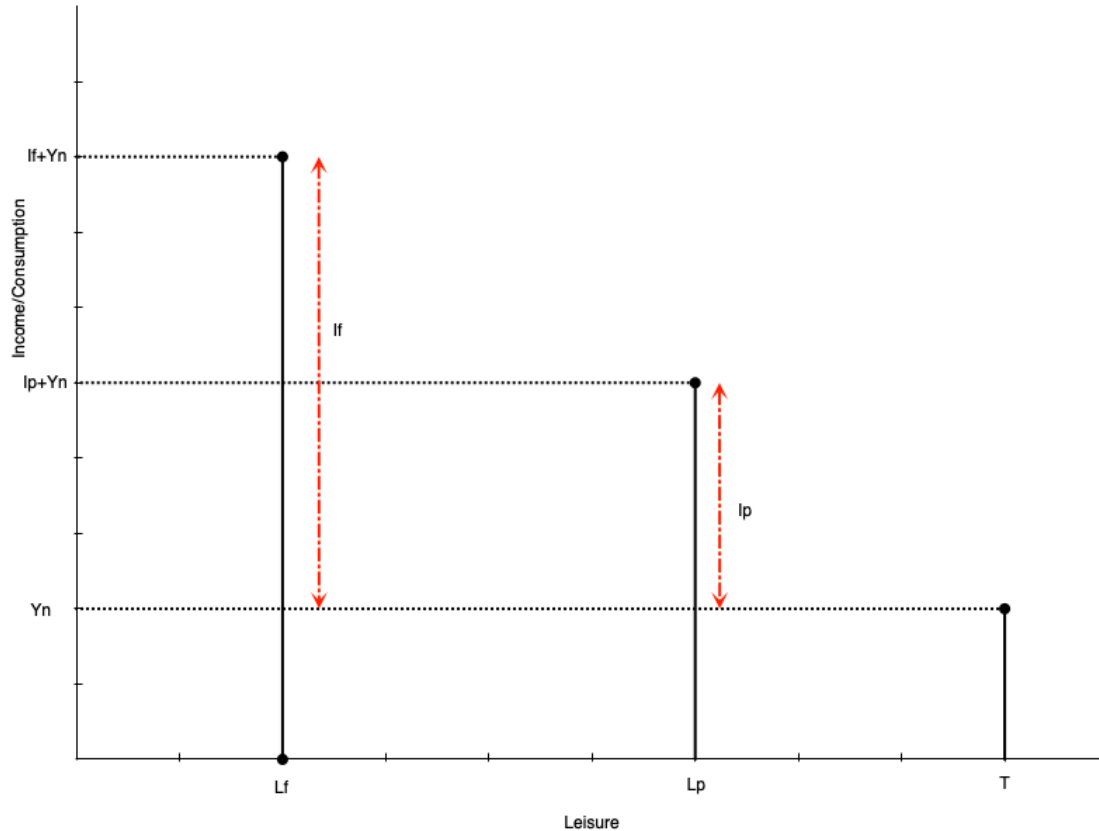
- Slope is the negative of the wage rate  $w$
- A lower wage means shallower slope
  - If  $w_1 < w_0$ , the budget line swivels down
  - They intersect at leisure =  $T$  because there are no work hours
- Lower wage also means full income is lower
  - Working all hours leads to less total labour earnings

# Constraints



- Often people cannot adjust their work hours freely
- They may only be able to work full time or part time
- Budget constraint is no longer a line, but a set of points
- Suppose an individual chooses part time work
  - Work hours are  $h_p = T - L_p$
  - Labour earnings are  $I_p = w * h_p$
  - Total consumption (and income) is  $C_p = I_p + Y_n$

# Constraints

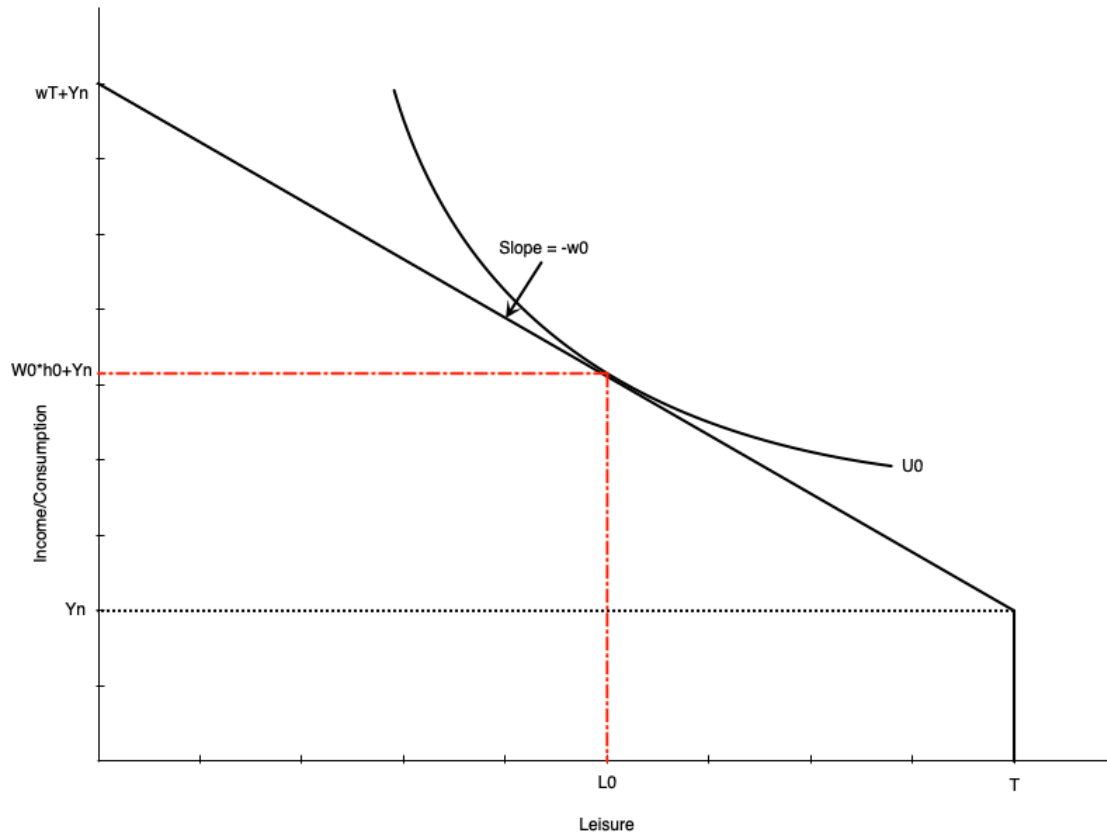


- A person working full time hours
  - Work hours are  $h_f = T - L_f$
  - Labour earnings are  $I_f = w * h_f$
  - Total consumption (and income) is  $C_f = I_f + Y_n$
- In theory wage could also be different for full time work

# Consumer Optimum

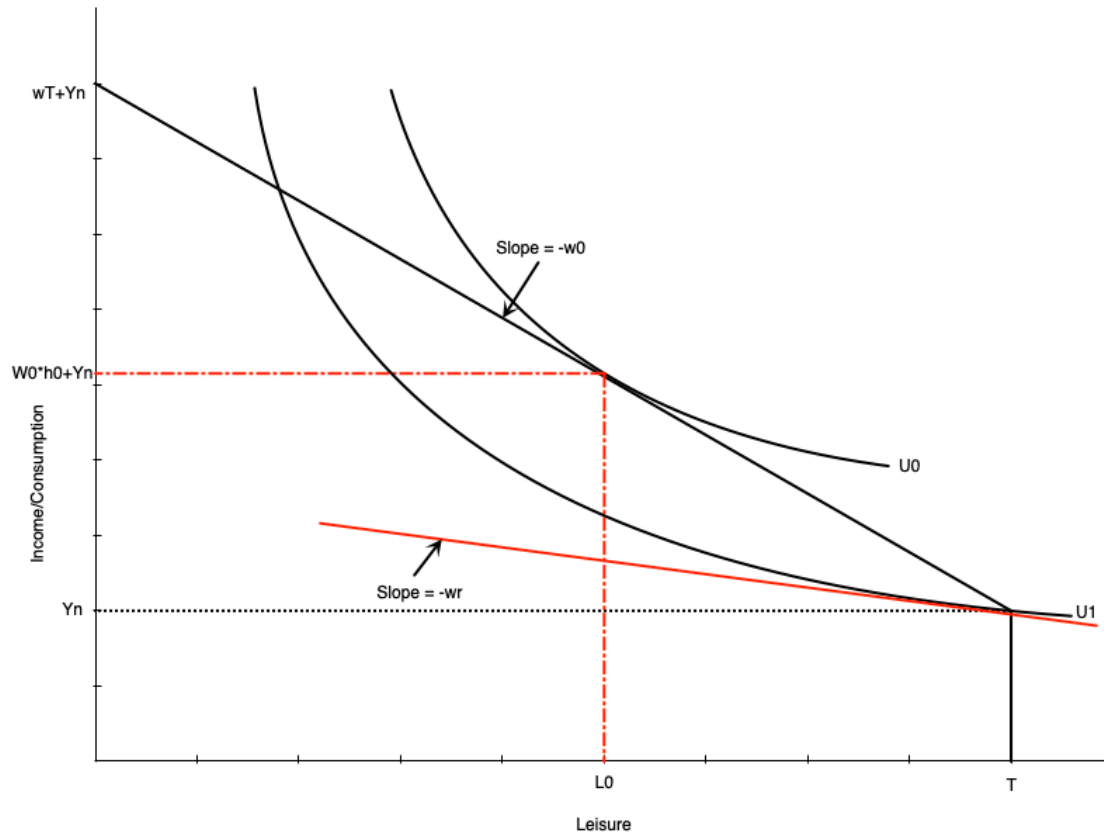
- Work hours are chosen using the combination of preferences and constraints
- The consumer optimum is the point that maximizes utility subject to the budget constraint
- The optimum occurs where the budget constraint is tangent to an indifference curve
- There are two possibilities for the optimum
  - Non-participation: optimum occurs at the end of the budget constraint (full leisure)
  - Participation: optimum occurs at an interior point (some leisure, some work)
- Model also defines the **reservation wage**
  - Lowest wage rate at which a person will choose to work

# Consumer Optimum



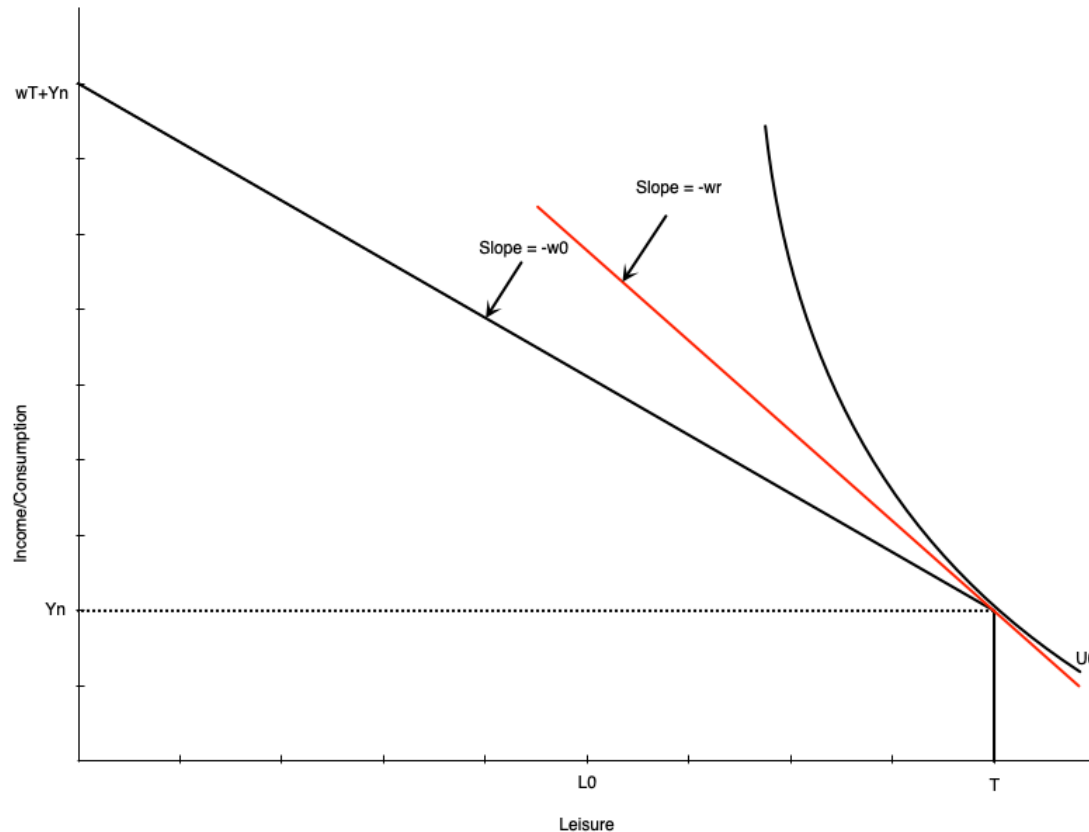
- Graph shows an optimum with participation
- Optimum is where indifference curve is tangent to budget constraint
- At the optimum,  $MRS = \text{wage rate}$ 
  - Willingness to trade leisure for consumption (MRS) equals ability to trade them (wage)
- Optimal work hours are  $h_0 = T - L_0$
- Optimal consumption is  $C_0 = W_0 h_0 + Y_n$

# Consumer Optimum



- The reservation wage is the lowest wage at which a person will choose to work
- It occurs where the budget constraint is tangent to the indifference curve at full leisure
  - At that point,  $MRS = \text{reservation wage}$
- If the wage is any lower, the person will choose not to work
- If it is any higher, they will work positive hours
- The red line shows the hypothetical reservation wage
  - In this case, it is  $w_r$

# Consumer Optimum



- Graph to the left shows a non-participation optimum
- The slope of the indifference curve is steeper than the budget constraint at full leisure
  - The extra consumption you want from one less hour of leisure (MRS) is more than you can get from working an hour (wage)
- So your optimal choice is to not work at all
- Indifference curve touches the budget constraint at the kink
- Notice the wage  $w_0$  is lower than the reservation wage  $w_r$

# Comparative Statics



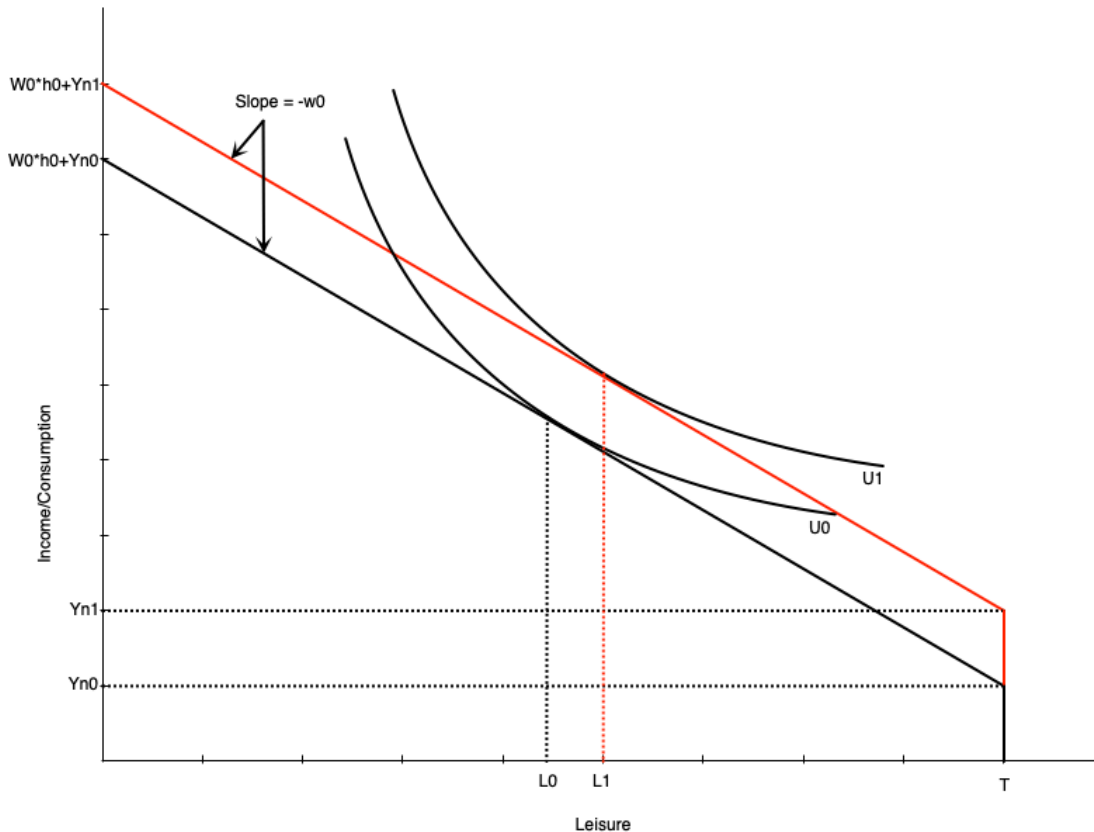
# Introduction

- The model can be used to predict how changes in the environment affect work decisions
- Changes could be to the wage or non-labour income
- Often these arise because of policy changes
  - Introduction or increase in welfare payment
  - Wage subsidy
  - Tax credits
  - Employment insurance
  - Child care
- We can examine these change with our model

# Increase in Non-Labour Income

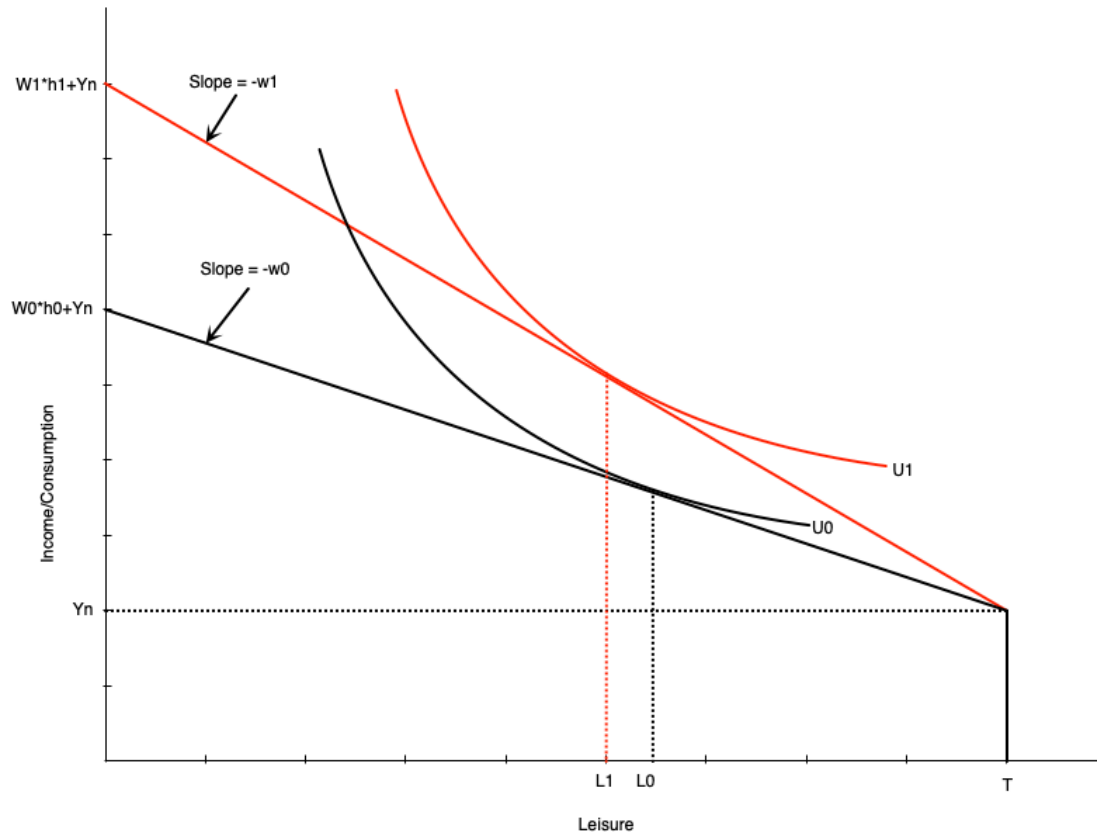
- Suppose that individuals receive an increase in non-labour income
  - Could be from a government transfer program
- How does this affect optimal work hours?
- Depends on whether leisure is a normal or inferior good
  - Normal good: leisure increases when non-labour income increases
  - Inferior good: leisure decreases when non-labour income increases
- Generally economists think of leisure as normal

# Increase in Non-Labour Income



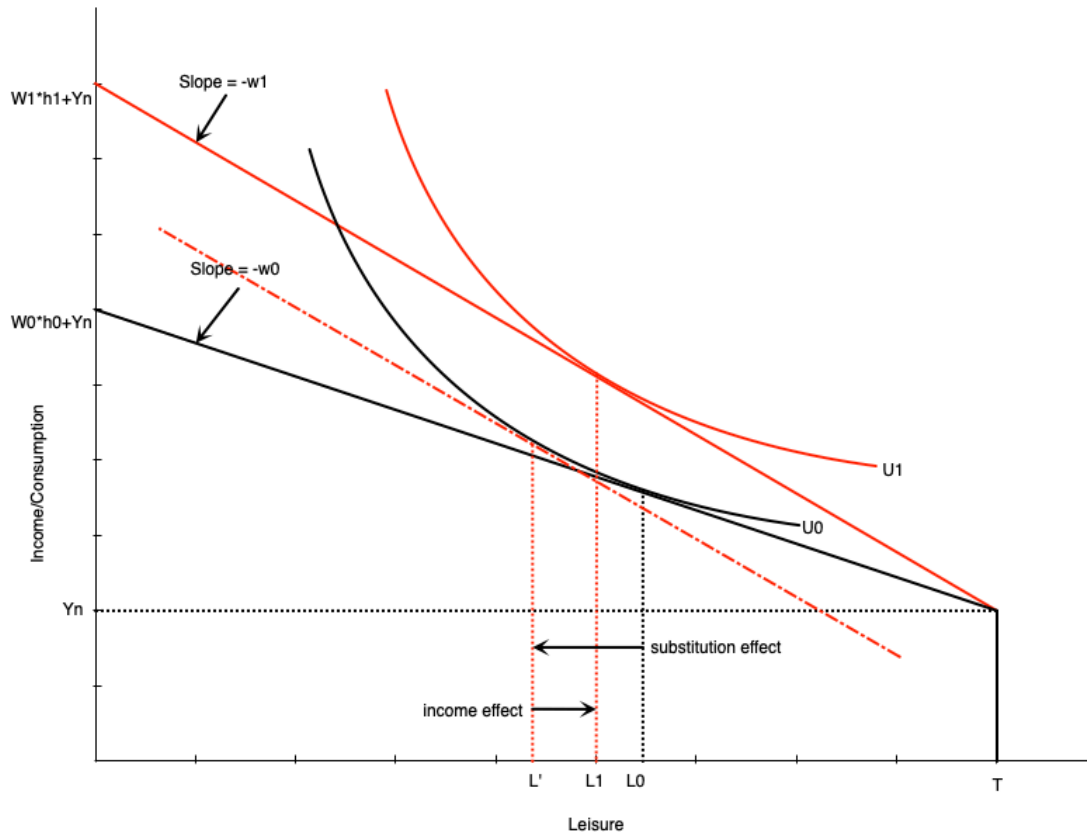
- Graph shows an increase in non-labour income from  $Y_{n0}$  to  $Y_{n1}$
- Budget line shifts up vertically but parallel
  - No change in slope because wage is the same
- If leisure is a normal good, optimal leisure increases from  $L_0$  to  $L_1$
- Means work hours decrease by the same amount
- Consumption also increases
- This illustrates a pure **income effect**
  - Increases in income increase demand for normal goods

# Increase in the Wage



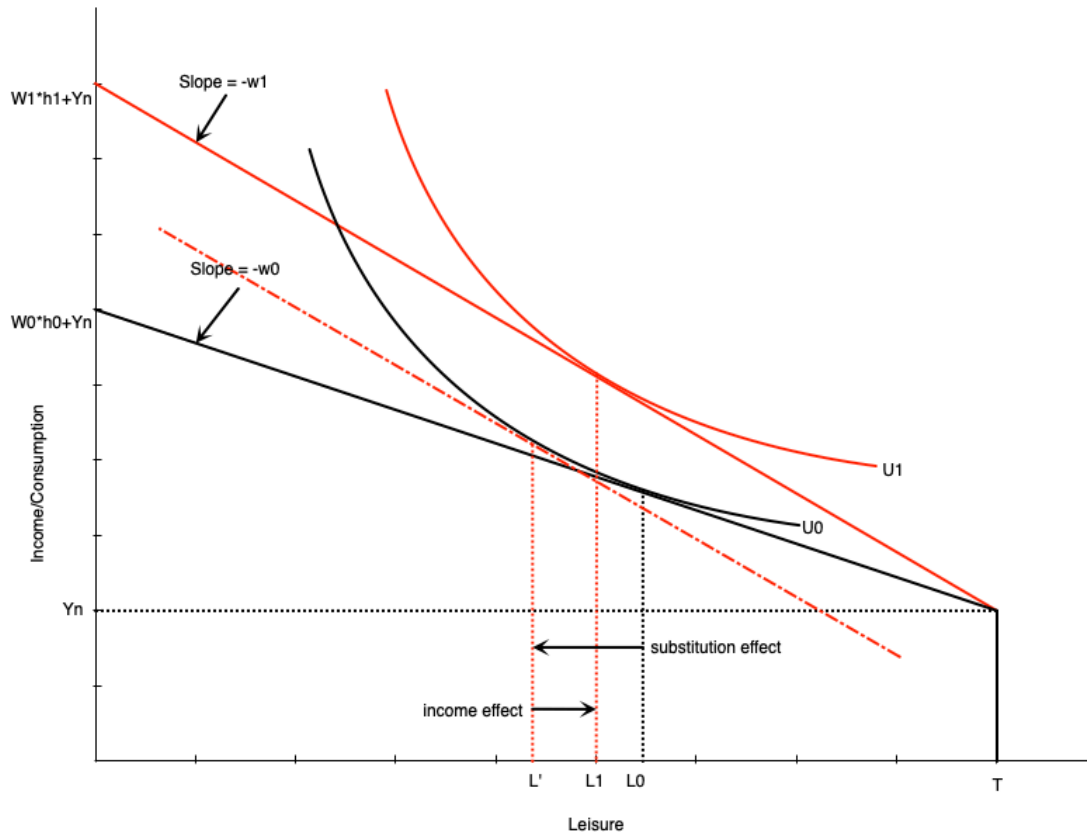
- If the wage changes, the budget constraint pivots
- In graph to the left, the wage increases from  $w_0$  to  $w_1$
- The slope becomes steeper
- Full income also increases because working all hours earns more
- Graph is drawn such that leisure falls from  $L_0$  to  $L_1$  at the new wage rate
- There are two effects underlying this change
  - Substitution effect
  - Income effect

# Increase in the Wage



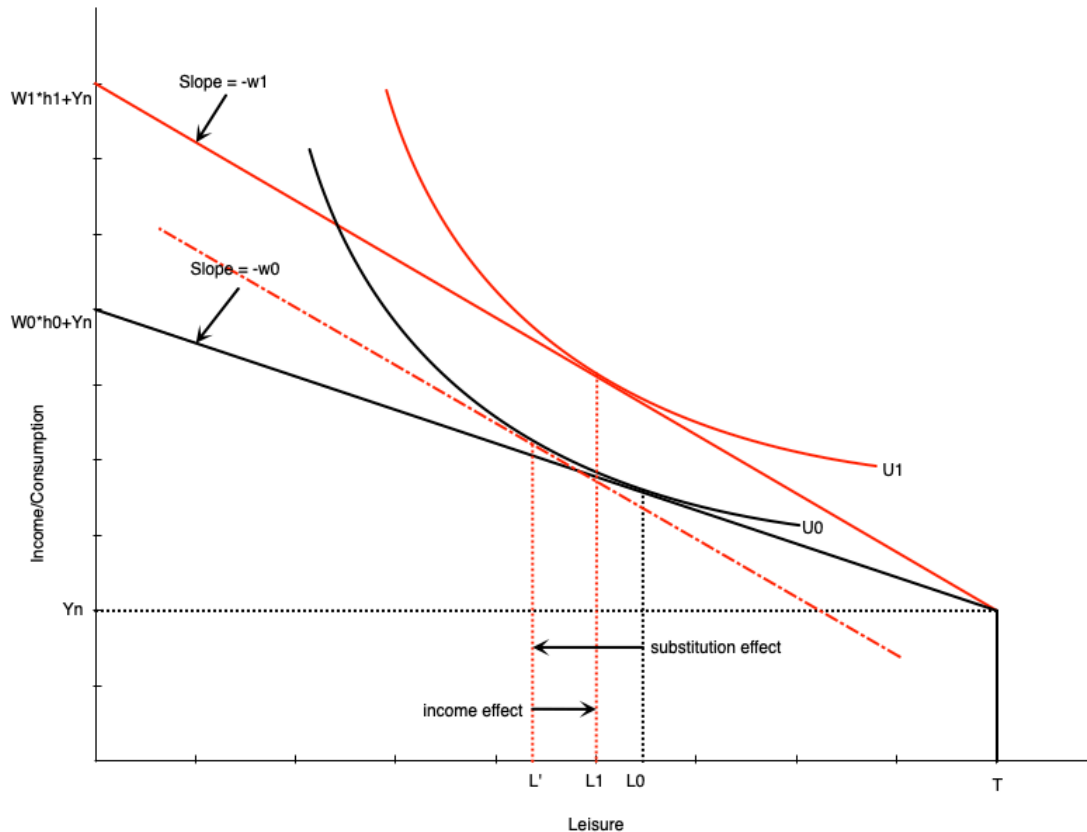
- **Substitution Effect:** change in leisure when wage changes but utility is held constant
  - When wage increases, leisure becomes more expensive
  - People substitute away from leisure and towards consumption
  - To measure this, draw a hypothetical budget line with the new slope but tangent to the original indifference curve
  - Difference in leisure measures substitution effect

# Increase in the Wage



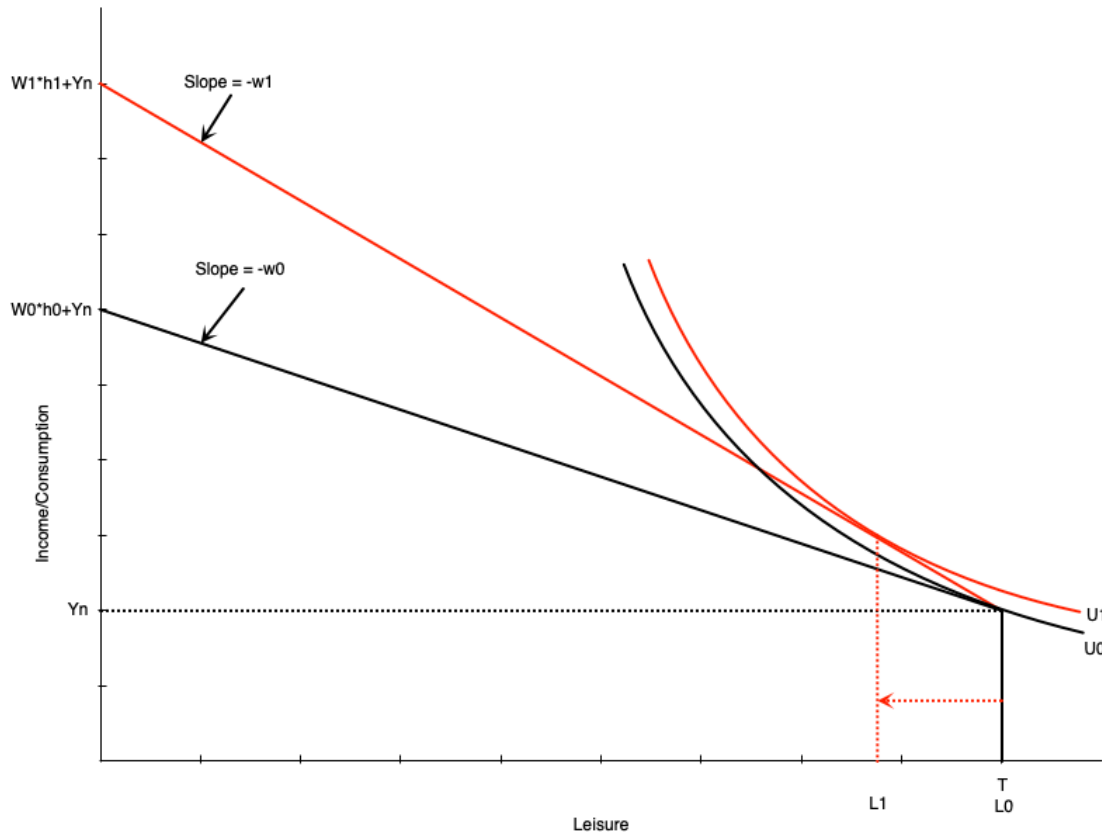
- **Income Effect:** change in leisure when income changes but wage is held constant
  - When wage increases, workers become richer at same hours of work
  - Want to consume more of all normal goods
  - To measure this, move from hypothetical budget line to new budget line
  - Difference in leisure measures income effect

# Increase in the Wage



- The income and substitution effects move in opposite directions
- For a wage increase
  - Substitution effect encourages more work (less leisure)
  - Income effect encourages less work (more leisure)
- The overall effect on work hours depends on which effect is stronger
- Graph on the left shows a stronger substitution effect

# Increase in the Wage



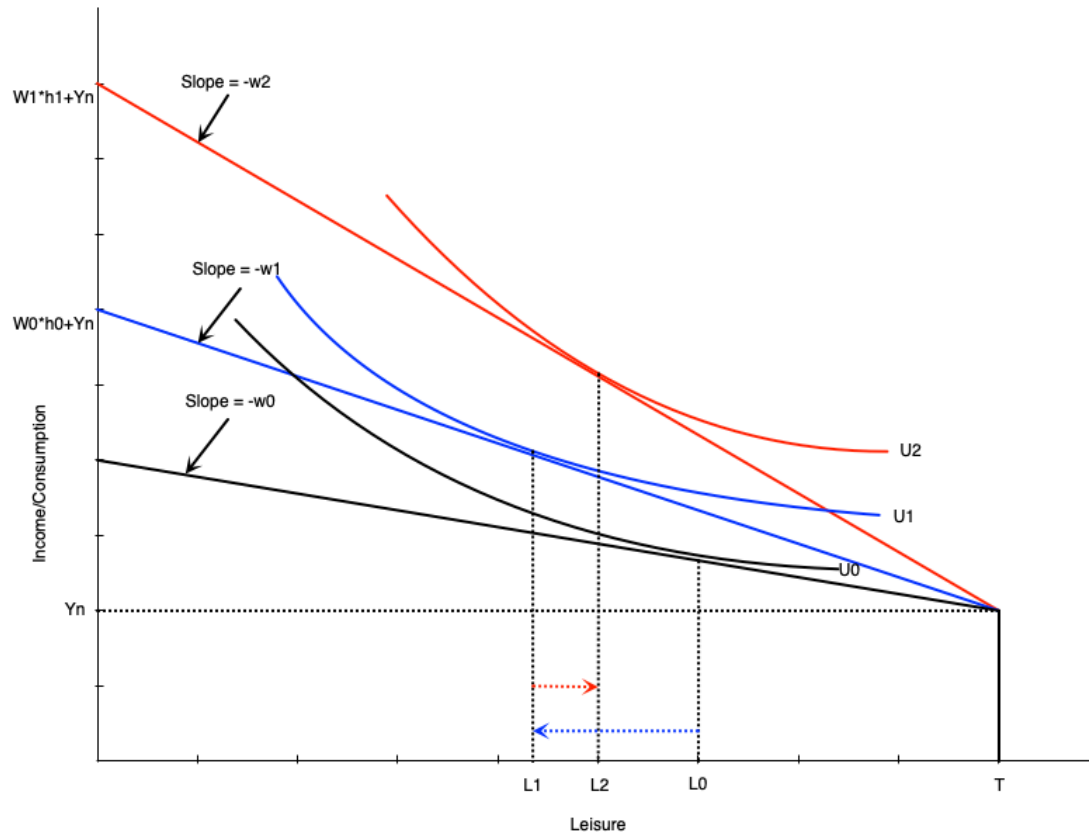
- Changing the wage can also affect participation
- Recall that workers do not work if the wage is below their reservation wage
- If an increase in the wage moves it above the reservation wage, they will start working
- Graph to the right shows how this would happen



# The Individual Labour Supply Curve

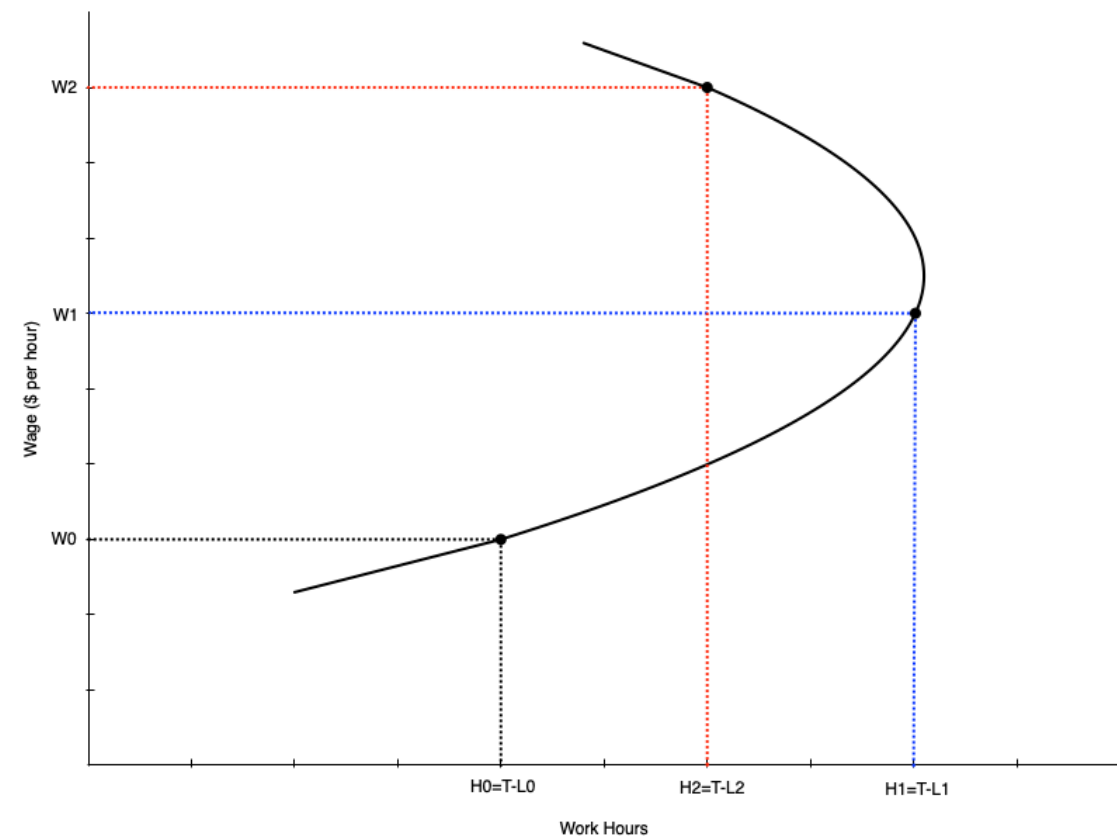
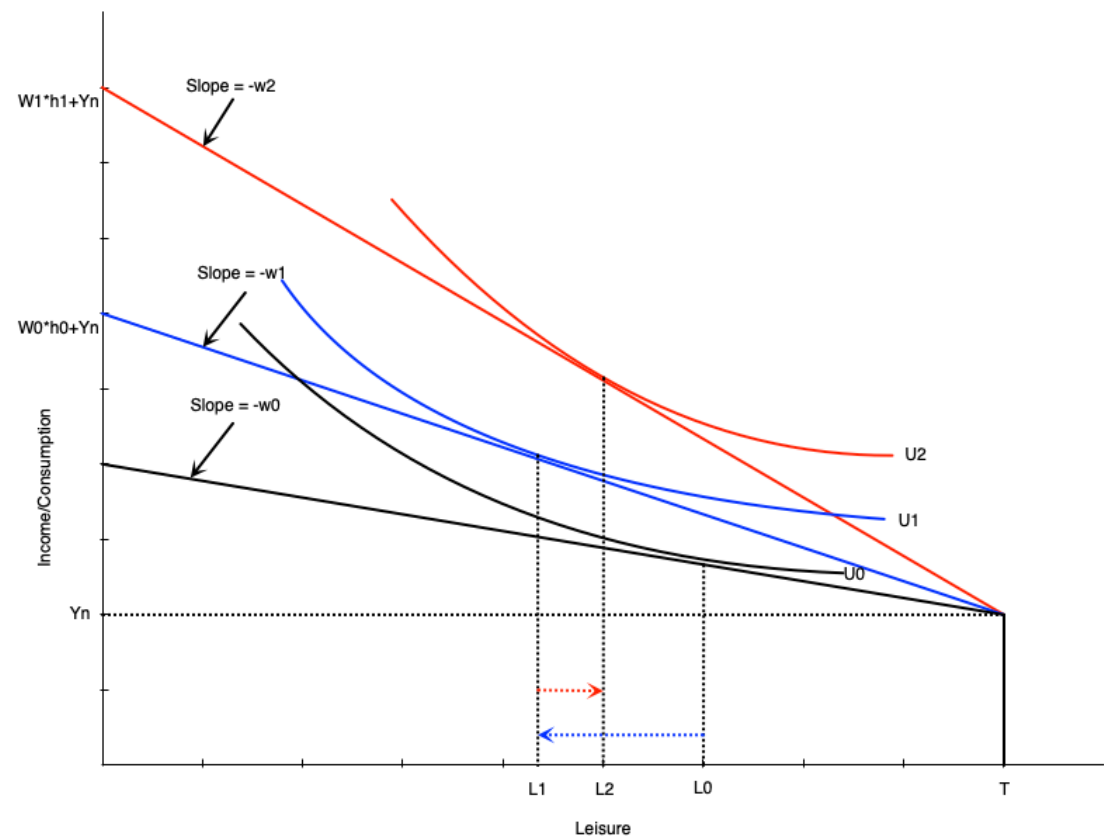
- The labour supply curve shows the relationship between the wage rate and hours worked
- It is derived from the consumer optimum at different wage rates
- We will see that the labour supply curve can be backward bending
  - It is upward sloping when the substitution effect is stronger
  - It is downward sloping when the income effect is stronger
  - The curve tends to bend backwards at higher wage rates

# The Individual Labour Supply Curve



- Suppose wage goes from  $w_0$  to  $w_1$  to  $w_2$
- At  $w_0$ , work hours are  $h_0 = T - L_0$
- At  $w_1$ , work hours increase to  $h_1 = T - L_1$ 
  - substitution effect stronger
- At  $w_2$ , work hours decrease to  $h_2 = T - L_2$ 
  - income effect stronger

# The Individual Labour Supply Curve



# Summary

- We have used the labour supply model to examine changes in the wage
- For people participating, wage changes alter leisure and work hours
- If the wage goes up then
  - Work hours go up if the substitution effect is strongest
  - Work hours go down if the income effect is strongest
- For non-participants, a wage increase can induce them to enter the labour force
  - If the wage goes above their reservation wage
- The labour supply curve maps different wages to work hours
- It slopes up at lower wages, but can bend backwards at higher wages

# Empirical Evidence

# Introduction

- There are many labour economists working on evidence of these theories
- We will look at a few examples of empirical evidence on labour supply
- First we look at evidence on participation
  - The **extensive margin** of labour supply
  - Many studies look specifically at married women
- Then at evidence on work hours
  - The **intensive margin** of labour supply

# Participation

- Table below shows participation rates for married women
- Broken down by age, children, education, spousal income
- Each of these demographic factors are related to wage
  - e.g. higher education -> higher wage
- We expect to see that where wage is higher, participation is also higher
- This is not a perfect way to examine this relationship
  - There could be other related factors that drive participation

# Participation

**TABLE 2.2** Labour Force Participation Rates of Married Women, Canada 2017

|                                                           | Percentage<br>of Married<br>Women | Participation<br>Rate <sup>a</sup> | Raw Difference<br>from Base<br>Group <sup>b</sup> | Adjusted<br>Difference from<br>Base Group <sup>c</sup> |
|-----------------------------------------------------------|-----------------------------------|------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------|
| <b>All Women, Total</b>                                   |                                   | <b>75.3</b>                        |                                                   |                                                        |
| <i>Age</i>                                                |                                   |                                    |                                                   |                                                        |
| 20–24                                                     | 1.1                               | 89.4                               | N/A                                               | N/A                                                    |
| 25–34                                                     | 18.9                              | 84.4                               | –5.0                                              | –3.7                                                   |
| 35–44                                                     | 23.9                              | 85.5                               | –3.9                                              | –3.0                                                   |
| 45–54                                                     | 24.0                              | 84.8                               | –4.6                                              | –7.3                                                   |
| 55–64                                                     | 23.8                              | 64.8                               | –24.6                                             | –22.3                                                  |
| 65–69                                                     | 8.4                               | 27.5                               | –61.9                                             | –52.6                                                  |
| <i>Age of youngest child, under 18 years old, at home</i> |                                   |                                    |                                                   |                                                        |
| No children under 18                                      | 60.1                              | 70.9                               | N/A                                               | N/A                                                    |
| 0–5 years old                                             | 18.4                              | 77.4                               | 6.5                                               | –13.9                                                  |
| 6–9 years old                                             | 7.7                               | 84.6                               | 13.7                                              | –5.4                                                   |
| 10–15 years old                                           | 10.1                              | 87.0                               | 16.1                                              | –0.7                                                   |
| 16–17 years old                                           | 3.7                               | 86.3                               | 15.4                                              | 0.2                                                    |
| <i>Education</i>                                          |                                   |                                    |                                                   |                                                        |
| Less than high school graduation                          | 8.2                               | 49.6                               | N/A                                               | N/A                                                    |
| High school graduate or some post-secondary               | 23.6                              | 67.9                               | 18.3                                              | 12.1                                                   |
| Non-university, post-secondary certificate                | 30.7                              | 77.8                               | 28.2                                              | 18.8                                                   |
| University degree                                         | 37.6                              | 83.7                               | 34.1                                              | 22.4                                                   |
| <i>Spouse's income</i>                                    |                                   |                                    |                                                   |                                                        |
| None (or negative)                                        | 18.0                              | 49.7                               | N/A                                               | N/A                                                    |
| \$1–\$9,999                                               | 8.7                               | 62.0                               | 12.3                                              | 7.7                                                    |
| \$10,000–\$24,999                                         | 9.1                               | 78.6                               | 28.9                                              | 17.5                                                   |
| \$25,000–\$49,999                                         | 18.2                              | 82.3                               | 32.6                                              | 18.4                                                   |
| \$50,000–\$74,999                                         | 17.1                              | 87.1                               | 37.4                                              | 21.0                                                   |
| \$75,000–\$99,999                                         | 12.4                              | 86.3                               | 36.6                                              | 18.9                                                   |
| \$100,000–\$149,999                                       | 10.7                              | 84.2                               | 34.5                                              | 17.1                                                   |
| Over \$150,000                                            | 5.7                               | 74.1                               | 24.4                                              | 7.4                                                    |



# Elasticity of Labour Supply

- The **elasticity of labour supply** is the percentage change in labour supply from a 1% change in the wage
- Measures how responsive work hours are to changes in the wage
- There are different ways of measuring elasticity
  - **Uncompensated Elasticity:** measures total change in work hours from a wage change
    - Includes both income and substitution effects
    - Effect is theoretically ambiguous
  - **Compensated Elasticity:** measures change in work hours after removing income effect
    - Isolates the substitution effect
    - Should be positive

# Elasticity of Labour Supply

**TABLE 2.3**

**Estimated Elasticities of Labour Supply**

| <b>Sex</b>              | <b>Uncompensated<br/>(Gross, Total) Wage<br/>Elasticity of Supply</b> | <b>Compensated<br/>(Substitution) Wage<br/>Elasticity of Supply</b> | <b>Income Elasticity<br/>of Supply</b> |
|-------------------------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------|
| Both sexes              | 0.0 to 0.2                                                            | 0.1 to 0.3                                                          | −0.1 to 0.0                            |
| Men and single<br>women | −0.1 to 0.2                                                           | 0.1 to 0.3                                                          | −0.1 to 0.0                            |
| Married women           | 0.1 to 0.3                                                            | 0.2 to 0.4                                                          | −0.1 to 0.0                            |

NOTES: The uncompensated elasticity represents the elasticity for the choice of hours to work, conditional on working.

SOURCE: Adapted from Table 2 of McClelland and Mok (2012), in their review of U.S. studies for the Congressional Budget Office.

# Elasticity of Labour Supply

- Table above shows summary of uncompensated and compensated elasticities from different studies
- Separates by gender
  - We might expect men and women to respond differently to wage changes
  - Women potentially have more flexibility in work hours and respond more
- Table shows uniformly *inelastic* labour supply
  - Elasticity less than 1 in absolute value
  - A 1% increase in wage leads to roughly 0.1% to 0.3% change in work hours
- Compensated elasticity is positive
  - Women respond more to wage changes
- Income effect is generally negative or small

# Applications

# Introduction

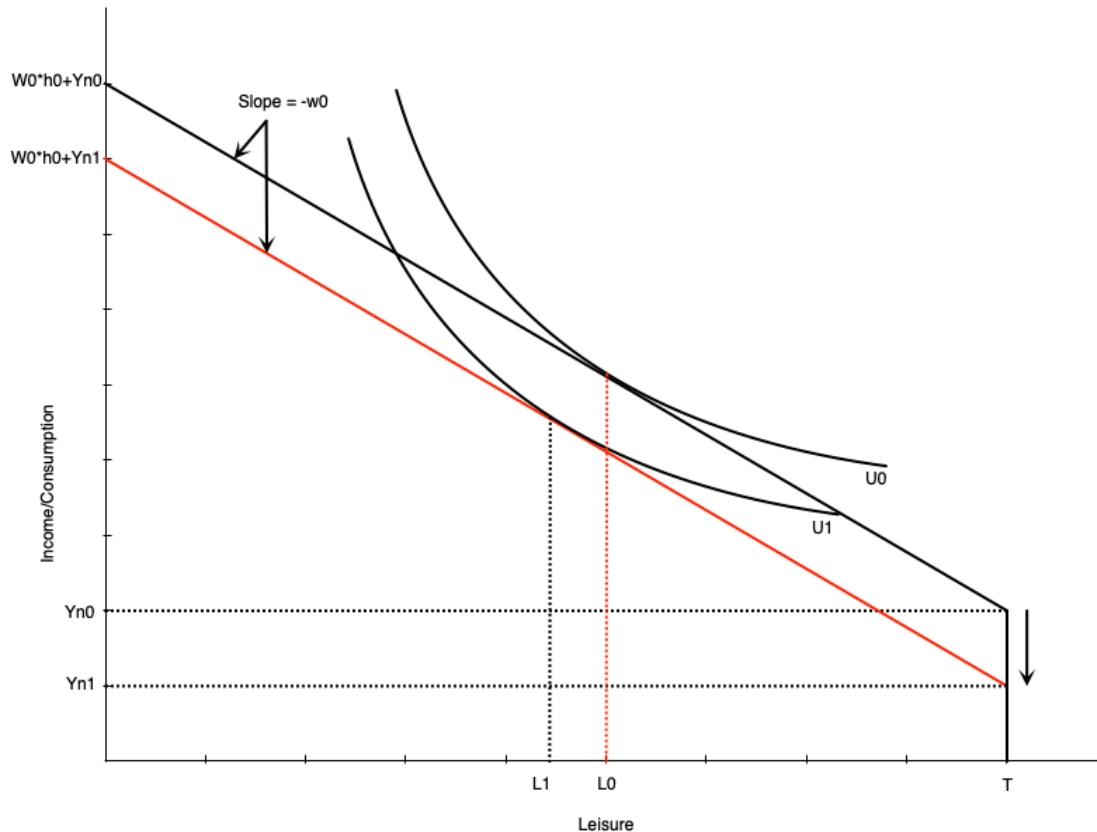
- We can use the model to analyze various situations faced by workers
- In this section we will look at
  - Changes in family income (added worker effects)
  - Discouraged workers
  - Moonlighting (holding multiple jobs)
  - Overtime
  - Flex work
- The list is not exhaustive
- In the next chapter we will look at government policies

# Added Worker Effect

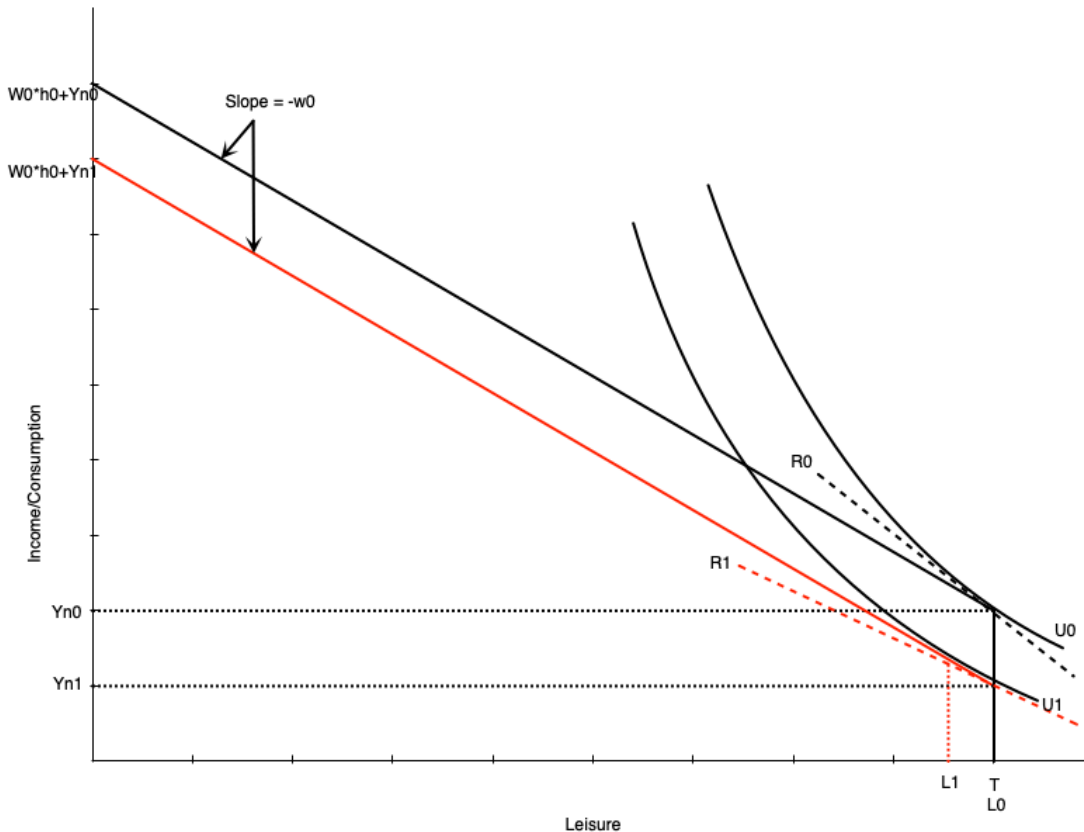
- The **added worker effect** occurs when a negative income shock to a family leads to increased labour supply from secondary earners
  - e.g. husband loses job, wife enters labour force or increases work hours
- Explicitly considers the family unit rather than treating labour supply as purely individual
- Spousal income is treated as a person's non-labour income
- In the model we can look at what happens when this amount falls

# Added Worker Effect

- When non-labour income falls, the budget constraint shifts down
- If leisure is a normal good, optimal leisure falls from  $L_0$  to  $L_1$
- Work hours increase from  $h_0$  to  $h_1$
- Means that the spouse increases work hours to compensate for lost family income



# Added Worker Effect



- If the spouse was not already working, the fall in income can induce participation
- Happens because the fall in income reduces the reservation wage
  - If the wage is now above the reservation wage, they will start working
- Graph to the left shows how this happens
  - The slope of reservation wage  $R_1$  is smaller than  $R_0$  after the drop in non-labor income
  - Person enters the labour market in response because wage is now above reservation wage



# Hidden Unemployment

- We discussed a problem with the unemployment rate in that it does not include discouraged workers
- **Discouraged workers:** people who could work but have given up looking and dropped out of the labour force
- Our model can explain this behaviour
- In bad times, the wage falls
- If the wage falls below a person's reservation wage, they will drop out of the labour force

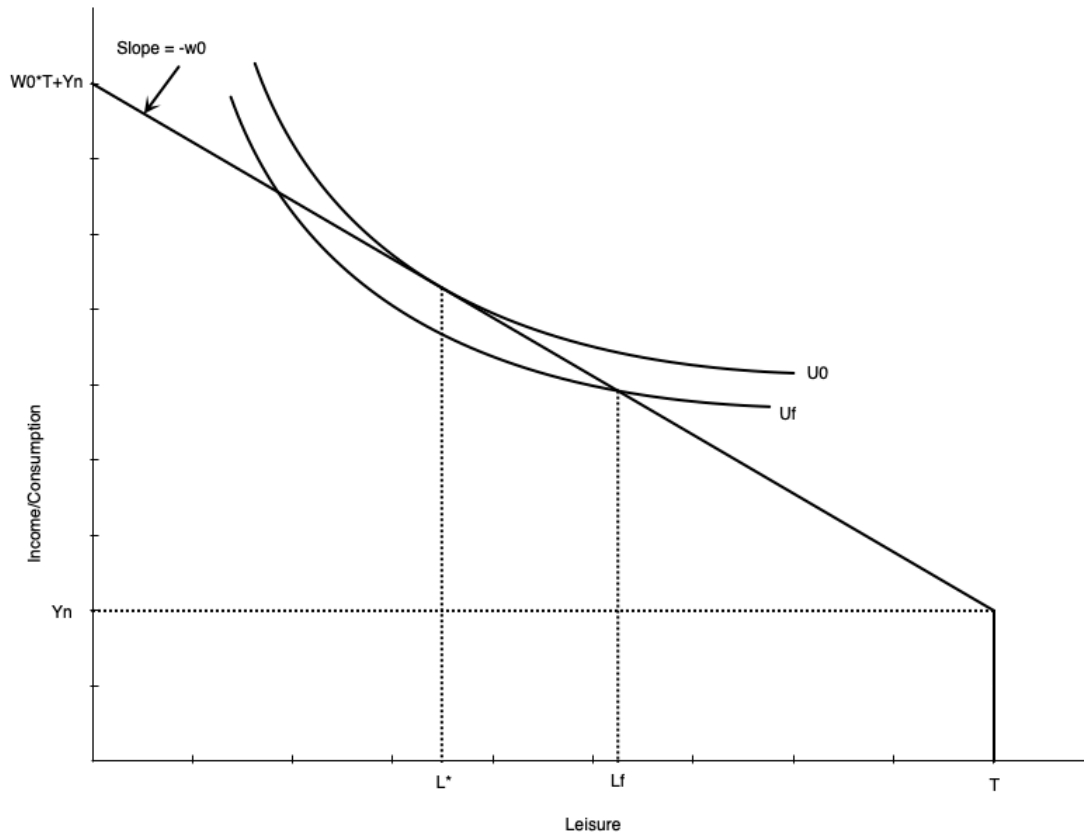


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# Moonlighting

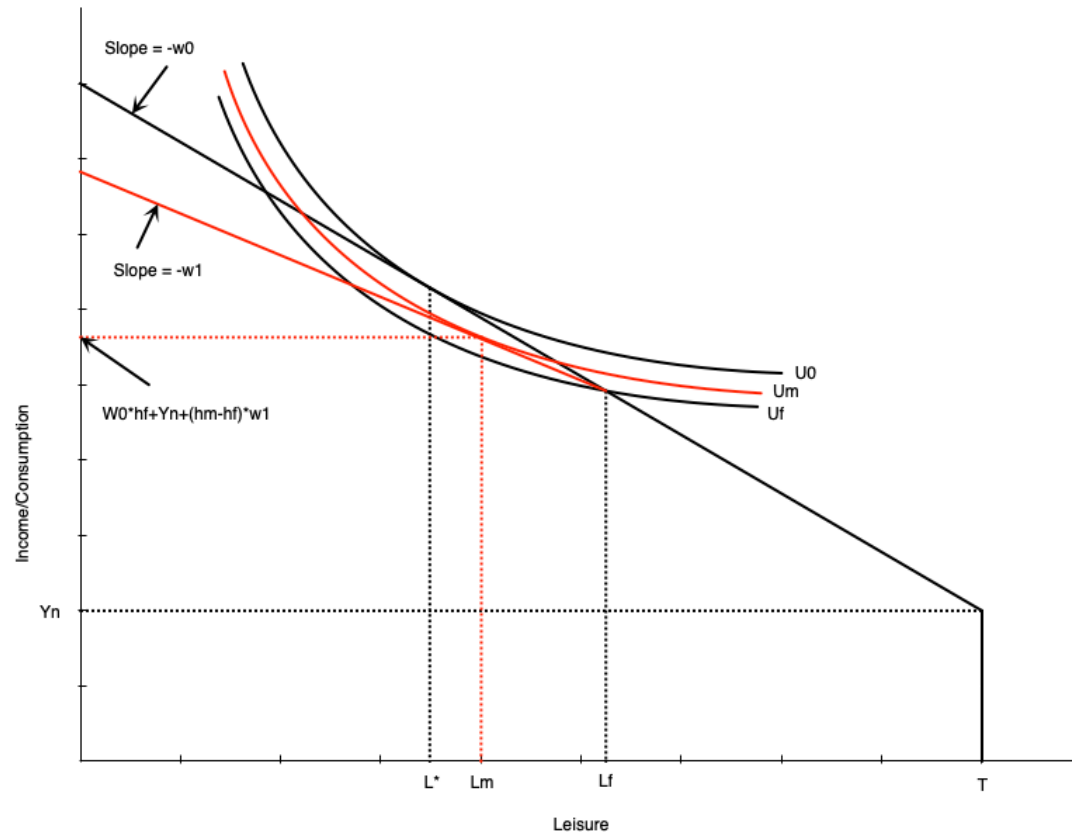
- **Moonlighting:** working additional jobs at night or on weekends
  - Bit of an old term where main jobs were generally 9-5
  - Extra work occurred after that
  - In 2025 secondary jobs can happen at any time
- Happens when people have a fixed hours constraint
  - Example: working full time, but wishing to work longer
  - People with fixed hours can be **underemployed**
- People may take a second job, possibly at a lower wage

# Moonlighting



- In this graph people ideally would work  $h^* = T - L^*$  hours
  - Maximizes utility subject to budget constraint
- Can only work  $h_f = T - L_f$  hours at their main job
  - Employer does not allow more hours
- This puts them on a lower indifference curve  $U_f$
- The outcome is not optimal

# Moonlighting

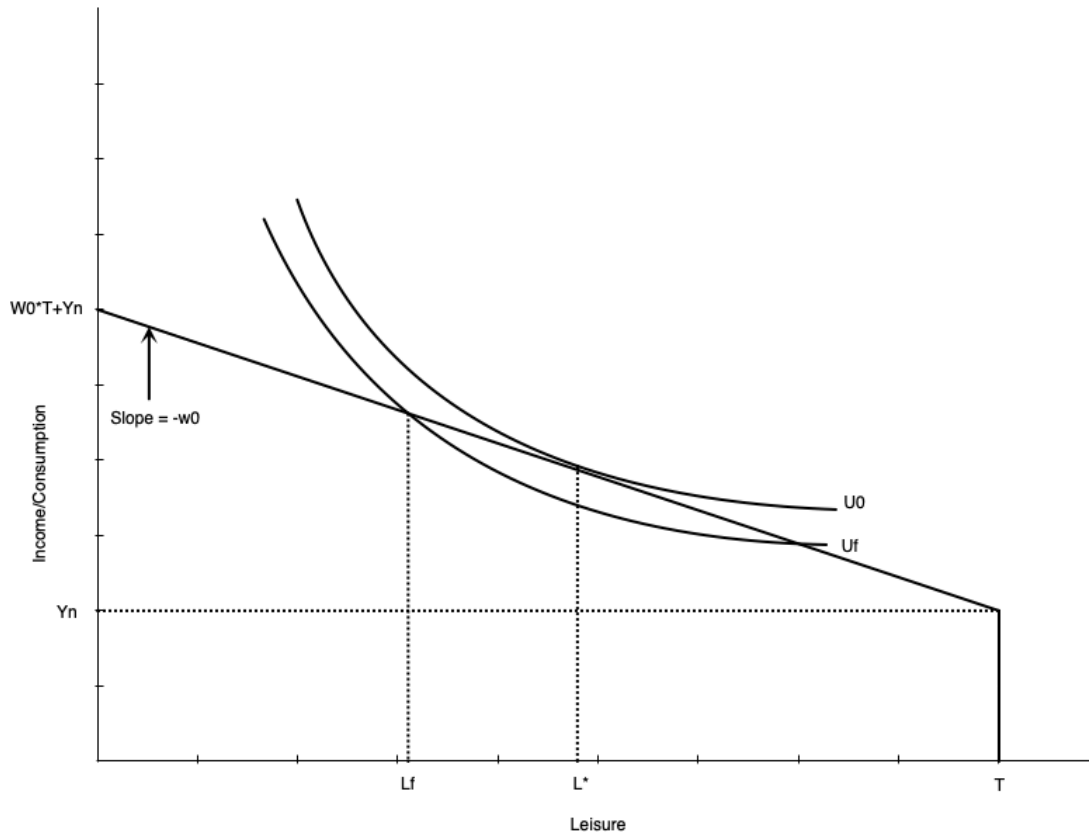


- Now imagine they can take a second job at a lower wage rate
- The budget constraint pivots out from the fixed hours point
- Beyond those hours, the wage falls
- Allows worker to access higher utility curve
  - They can increase hours worked
  - But not as much as if they could extend hours in main job

# Overtime

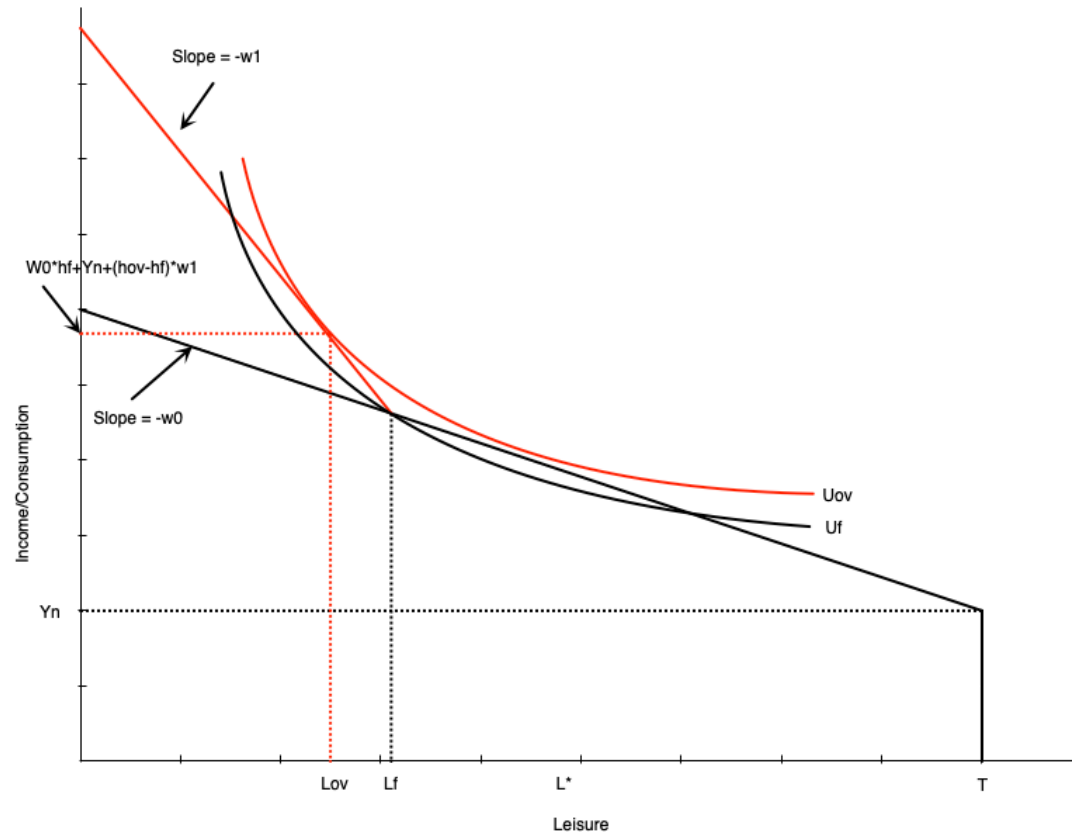
- Sometimes people are working too much at the main job
- Also happens with a fixed hours constraint
  - People want to work less at given wage
  - Employer does not allow less hours
  - They are **overemployed**
- At given wage they cannot maximize utility subject to constraints

# Overtime



- In this graph, people would ideally work  $h^* = T - L^*$  hours
  - Maximizes utility subject to budget constraint
- But employer requires them to work  $h_f = T - L_f$  hours
  - Employer does not allow fewer hours
- Puts them on a lower indifference curve  $U_f$
- The outcome is not optimal

# Overtime



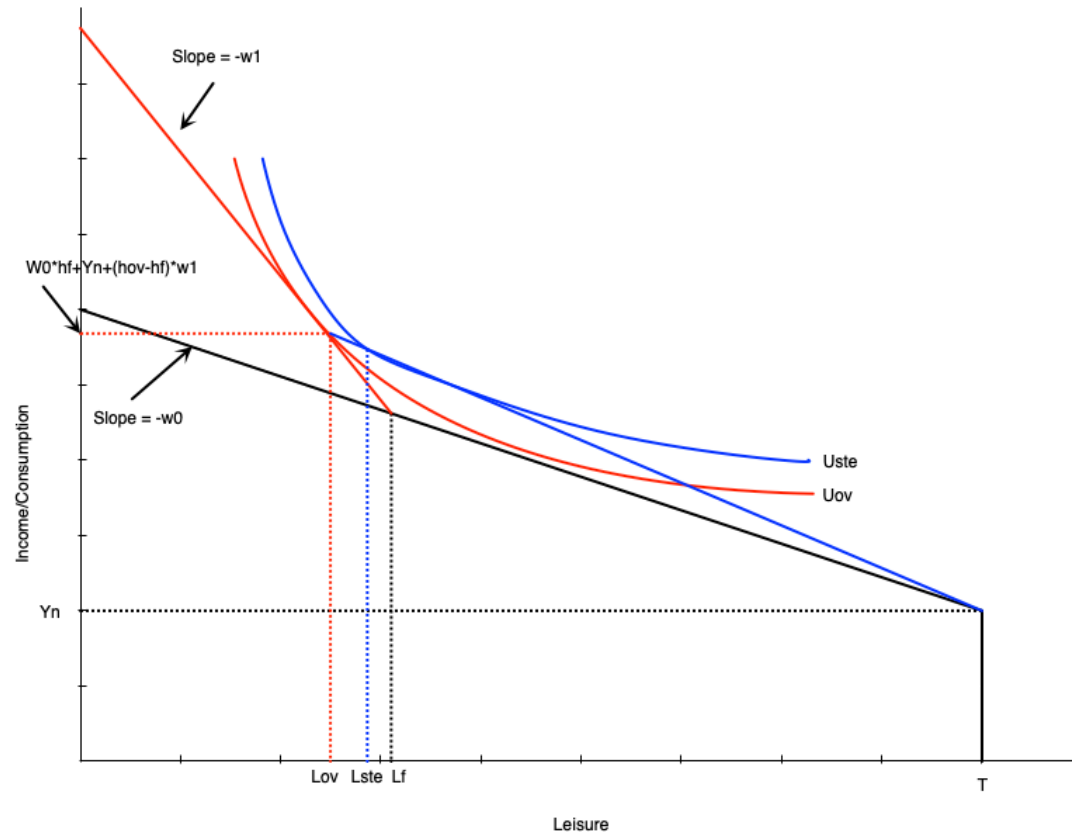
- If the employer offers overtime wages, the budget constraint pivots out from the fixed hours point
  - Beyond those hours, the wage increases from  $w_0$  to  $w_1$
- Allows worker to access higher utility curve
- Also increases hours worked even though they are initially overemployed
  - The higher wage induces a substitution effect to work more
  - There is a small income effect that only applies to the extra hours



# Overtime

- An alternative to overtime is for the firm to just pay more for all hours
  - Makes sense for a firm if they are constantly paying overtime
- That does not generate the same optimal work hours as overtime pay
  - Income effect is larger with straight time equivalent
  - Because wage increase applies to *all* hours worked
  - In overtime, income effect only applies to extra hours worked
- Worker chooses to less with straight time equivalent pay

# Overtime



- Straight-time equivalent work is depicted to the left
- The blue line goes from the fixed hours point with slope  $w_1$ 
  - Generates the equivalent income as overtime pay at the optimum
- Worker chooses fewer work hours than overtime
  - Due to income effect of having higher wage at all work hours

# Summary

# Summary

- We have explored the labour-leisure model for labour supply
- The model is based on utility maximization subject to a budget constraint
- The model can explain both participation and work hours decisions
- Changes in non-labour income and the wage affect work decisions
- The labour supply curve can be backward bending
- The model can be used to analyze various situations faced by workers
  - Added worker effects
  - Discouraged workers
  - Moonlighting
  - Overtime
- Next chapter we will analyze government policy within this model